

IN-2-ACADEMIA JOURNAL

Student Research Journal

2025, 2nd Edition





LETTER FROM THE EDITOR

Dear Reader,

Since 2021, Anthropy has provided an outreach platform for students to foster early intellectual curiosity and meaningful engagement within the humanities and social sciences.

We empower students to explore their research interests with academic rigor, connect with experts, and share their insights with the broader community. Through our signature events, such as Humanities Focus Weeks, students gain invaluable exposure to thought leaders, including ambassadors, authors, professors, and changemakers across disciplines.

It is with great pride that we present the second edition of the *Anthropy Review*, a journal celebrating the outstanding work of our student researchers.

We are equally delighted to launch *Into2Academia*, our flagship research program, this year. This pioneering initiative introduces students to the academic research process through a structured curriculum designed by published researchers and one-on-one mentorship from expert mentors. We hope this edition offers a compelling preview of the high-caliber research future participants can expect to produce as part of the program.

The following are distinguished research projects our students have embarked on this season.

Sincerely,
Julia Piórko Bermig
Editor-in-Chief,
Anthropy Review



ABSTRACT

This issue of In-2-Academia Student Research Journal presents a diverse range of research, each paper offering a fresh perspective on complex topics related to identity, culture, and power. Together, they explore a variety of ideas and frameworks that challenge traditional boundaries.

To begin, Ava Tso's "How does Confucianist philosophy influence family-based mental health interventions in Singapore?" delves into how Confucian values shape mental health support, particularly in the context of stigma and cultural expectations. In contrast, Ashita Agarwal's "From Syncretism to Majoritarianism: The Evolution of Religious Tolerance from Akbar's Rule to BJP-Led India" examines the dramatic shift from Akbar's inclusive policies to the BJP's identity-driven politics, offering a thought-provoking analysis of religious tolerance in India.

Shifting focus to economic history, Vaishnav Krishnaprabhu explores the impact of colonial rule in "Colonial Monopolies and Industrial Decline: The Impact of the British East India Company on Local Industrial Development in India, 1608–1874." He critically investigates how British control stunted India's industrial progress, using historical events to reveal the broader economic consequences. Samarth Bharat Puri, meanwhile, in "Indian Army's Role in the Integration of the Princely States Between 1947 and 1950," highlights the military's crucial role in India's political consolidation post-independence, offering new insights into the military's shaping of India's national identity.

Farhad Driver's "Prevalent Differences Between Iranian Zoroastrian and Parsi Indian Society" provides an intriguing comparison of Zoroastrian communities in Iran and India, focusing on the social, cultural, and economic factors that led to their divergence. Meanwhile, Mysha Shangari's "Gods, Mortals and Misogyny: The Roles of Gender in Ancient Greek Mythology" analyzes how divine archetypes shaped early narratives of patriarchy and power, connecting mythology to the roots of gendered societal norms.

This journal represents a three-month process of dedication and collaboration, with ten sessions devoted to refining each paper through feedback and discussion. We would like to thank all the mentors who devoted their energy and time to guiding the students throughout this process. Their support has been invaluable in shaping these papers and ensuring the quality of this journal.

*Best Regards,
Ai Jian and Myra Dhingra
Co-Chairs of Marketing & Communications*



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HOW DOES CONFUCIANIST PHILOSOPHY INFLUENCE FAMILY- BASED MENTAL HEALTH INTERVENTIONS IN SINGAPORE

WRITTEN BY AVA TSO



EST. 2021

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ABSTRACT

Confucianism, a set of philosophical principles that are practiced primarily in East Asia, continues to shape the familial structures of modern Singapore, mainly through the values of filial piety (孝, xiao) and social harmony (和谐, héxié). This paper investigates how these Confucian principles influence family-based mental health interventions in Singapore, where mental health struggles are rising, yet remain stigmatized by society. While previous studies have explored the influence of Confucian ethics on healthcare behaviors in East Asian societies, few have examined how these principles affect mental health support within Singapore's unique multicultural and policy-driven context. Drawing on existing literature and supported by qualitative and quantitative studies, this research finds that filial piety fosters emotional suppression by reinforcing hierarchical familial structures, which deters individuals from seeking professional help. Similarly, the cultural imperative to maintain social harmony discourages open dialogue around mental illness, as this disclosure is often perceived as a threat to family reputation. While some reinterpretations of Confucian harmony that may be more liberal have been shown to facilitate collective healing in families, these cases are rare. Overall, this study concludes that the traditional interpretations of Confucian principles contribute to the silence around mental health struggles and affect the effectiveness of family-based interventions. It argues that to improve mental health outcomes, interventions have to engage with these cultural frameworks directly, coming up with culturally sensitive approaches that work within Confucian-influenced families.

INTRODUCTION

Confucianism is a philosophical and ethical system that has shaped East Asian societies for over two millennia. Over time, Confucian values spread throughout East Asia, heavily influencing the cultures of countries such as China, Korea, Japan, and Vietnam. In Singapore, these values were transmitted primarily through its ethnic Chinese majority, where Confucian ideals—especially those emphasizing filial piety and social harmony—continue to inform societal attitudes and family structures today. At the core of Confucianism is the belief that human relationships, particularly within the family, serve as the foundation for a stable and well-ordered society. Today, Confucian ideals remain deeply ingrained in Singaporean society, influencing familial relationships and healthcare decisions.

Family-based mental health interventions in Singapore involve collective decision-making and emphasize family cohesion. These interventions include family therapy or educational initiatives designed to improve communication and conflict resolution within the family. Stated by Deputy Prime Minister and Minister for Finance Lawrence Wong during a parliamentary motion on February 7, 2024 - Mental health challenges are increasingly recognized as a public health concern in Singapore. Yet, stigma and cultural barriers prevent individuals from seeking appropriate care.

While there is existing research on the effects of Confucianism on health behaviors, few scholars have examined how Confucian principles, in general, and the concept of filial piety, in particular, inform family-based mental health interventions in Singapore. Research like Fan's (2007) study looks at Confucian medical ethics and how familial obligation or respect for authority influences patient autonomy and treatment compliance. Kim et al. (2020) examine family decision-making around healthcare in an East Asian context, finding that Confucian values tend to privilege collective functioning over individual mental health needs.

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fear of “losing face.” Yang & Kleinman (2008): The paper provides insight into how traditional Chinese cultural values shape the process and outcomes of psychiatric care. However, there remains a gap in the literature specifically addressing how these dynamics play out within Singapore’s multicultural and policy-driven mental health landscape—a gap this paper aims to fill.

This study aims to build on these findings by analyzing specifically how Confucian principles interact with mental health interventions in Singapore. The influence of Confucian philosophy, particularly its emphasis on filial piety, has negative effects on family-based mental health interventions and outcomes in Singapore. By examining Confucianism’s role in shaping mental health interventions, researchers and policymakers can better address cultural barriers that prevent effective mental health care.

SECTION 1:

The Five Pillars of Confucianism are the principles at the core of Confucianism which include Ren (仁, benevolence and compassion), Yi (义, righteousness and justice), Li (礼, propriety and social norms), Zhi (智, wisdom and knowledge), and Xin (信, integrity and trustworthiness). These are the common values of social control and moral norms that would result in the cultivation of filial piety (孝, xiao) in Confucian ethics, where the emphasis is on obedience and the duty towards parents and ancestors.

These historical values would further trace back to the teachings of Confucius (551–479 BCE), which sought to maintain a social order around virtue and moral values. In the Analects (论语), a collection of sayings and ideas of Chinese philosopher and politician Confucius, he points out the hierarchical conditionality as well as mutuality in relationships when he states that “A ruler should govern his people with virtue and rituals, and they will develop a sense of shame and become upright.” (Analects, 2:3)

This explains how Confucian principles, particularly Li, serve as a means for social control. When individuals consistently practice propriety and moral education, they also internalize their roles within society, reinforcing the hierarchical structures that sustain the filial piety principle. In this sense, control is not imposed coercively but rather cultivated through strict adherence to the tradition which Confucius sets up himself.

Filial piety, as an extension of these core values, is explicitly addressed in another Analects passage. It states “Filial piety does not mean merely providing for one’s parents; true filial piety lies in bringing them honor and ensuring their actions align with virtue.” (Analects, 2:7) The traditional interpretation clarifies that the Xiao principle (filial piety) is not only about obedience but also about moral responsibility. This makes sure that an individual’s family maintains a virtuous reputation.

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One of the most well-known quotations from The Confucian Analects that illustrates the definition of filial piety is “The Master said, ‘Filial piety nowadays means being able to support one’s parents. But dogs and horses are also able to do this. If there is no reverence, wherein lies the difference?’” - Analects 2.7 (《論語·為政》). In the context of mental health interventions in Singapore, this philosophical foundation complicates the approaches to care. Mental health struggles are under-communicated or dismissed to fulfill perceived filial duties under this principle. It requires the prioritization of family needs over personal desires. Filial piety extends beyond individual relationships to influence social expectations, reinforcing a sense of duty toward elders and shaping behaviors in various aspects of life, one of them being mental health interventions.

Studies have shown, for instance, that families have resisted mental health treatments that challenge hierarchical structures, and or ask children to talk about personal struggles to one another, so that children could be in turn demanding family harmony or even, upset their elders in such hierarchy.

Moreover, research from the National Library of Medicine (Yu et. al) examined how Confucian values affect caregiver stress among families of individuals with severe mental illnesses. The study surveyed 200 caregivers in East Asian communities and found that Ren (仁, benevolence) and Yi (義, righteousness) can also increase psychological distress by creating expectations of self-sacrifice. Caregivers, therefore, prioritized duty over self-care, leading to higher rates of emotional exhaustion among the caregivers. The study’s findings show very clearly that while Confucianism builds strong support networks, its emphasis on filial piety can lead to caregiver burnout and also result in the reluctance to seek external mental health assistance. This principle can encourage emotional suppression and conformity to traditional family values. This study showed that caregivers are subject to enormous stressors and are potentially at risk for caregiver burden and declining physical and mental health.

Despite the reported positive correlation between authoritarian filial piety and mental health, there is reason to believe that it will also reinforce harmful behavioral patterns in families where children struggle with mental health conditions. Yeh (2018) explains that parental expectations rooted in authoritarian filial piety will delegitimize children's mental health concerns, framing them as a lack of discipline rather than a legitimate medical issue. Furthermore, Kwan et.al, 2021, shows the emphasis on hierarchy and obedience prevents children from openly discussing mental distress, leading to underutilization of mental health services.

Although Leck (2023) found a positive correlation between both reciprocal and authoritarian filial piety and self-reported mental well-being, in Confucian-influenced societies like Singapore, individuals equate adherence to filial duty with virtue or satisfaction, even if this obedience comes at the expense of their own psychological needs. The study also does not sufficiently examine how these dynamics play out in families experiencing severe or chronic mental illness, where the stakes of emotional suppression and caregiver strain are far more acute.

The way filial piety is interpreted in societies like Singapore brings about mental and emotional suppression and makes it extremely hard for individuals to stand up for themselves and seek help. Because there is a perceived duty to parents, children will do everything in their power to maintain peace in the relationship. Worried that opening up about emotional struggles will ruin that balance, they stop and therefore don’t seek help.

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SECTION 2:

Social harmony, or 和谐 (héxié), is another core principle of Confucianism. It emphasizes the importance of balance as well as the maintenance of internal order within families and society. While filial piety (孝, xiao) governs hierarchical roles and duties within familial relationships, social harmony is the overarching principle that is what guides how those roles are carried out in the real world, prioritizing collective well-being over individual expression. According to Confucius, the “superior man seeks harmony, not conformity” (Analects, 13:23). This statement from the Analects is traditionally interpreted to mean that while differences exist, open conflict should be avoided to sustain balance.

Historically as illustrated by this quote from Analects 8:2 “The Master said, ‘Respectfulness, without the rules of propriety (Li), becomes tiresome; carefulness, without the rules of propriety, becomes timidity; courage, without the rules of propriety, becomes insubordination; straightforwardness, without the rules of propriety, becomes rudeness.’”

《论语·泰伯》：「恭而无礼则劳，慎而无礼则蒞，勇而无礼则乱，直而无礼则绞。」，Confucianism conceptualizes mental illness not as a psychological or biological condition, but as a disruption of social order. As such, individuals suffering from mental illnesses in these societies are perceived as having failed to fulfill their social role in maintaining harmony within the family or their community. Chow et al. (2010) highlight this dynamic in their study on Chinese lay theories of mental illness, noting that mental illness is frequently interpreted as a moral failing or character flaw. Within Confucian cultures, people internalize this stigma and view their suffering as a personal weakness that dishonors their family, disincentivizing help-seeking behaviors from people who need help. This stigma is particularly prevalent in family contexts where open expression of distress is discouraged for fear of “causing disharmony.” Participants in Chow et al.’s study expressed a reluctance to disclose emotional problems, scared they would burden family members with their problems. In these environments, the social harmony principle implicitly encourages emotional suppression and silence, even in cases where help is necessary.

In Singapore, where Confucian values shape social and familial expectations, the value of harmony can have both constraining and enabling effects on mental health interventions. Badanta et al. (2022) concluded that Confucian values significantly influence mental health behaviors, leading families to prioritize internal problem-solving over professional consultation. In their scoping review analysing 40 studies to assess the influence of Confucian values on health behaviors and medical decisions, they found that families resist psychiatric services unless necessary, preferring to manage psychological issues privately to avoid exposing familial “disharmony” to outsiders. The nature of this resistance is rooted in Confucian principles that emphasize family centrality and social harmony. Families perceive seeking external psychiatric help as a potential source of "disharmony," leading them to handle mental health issues privately. This approach aims to protect the family's public image and adhere to cultural expectations of self-reliance and internal resolution. This is particularly concerning in family-based interventions, where open communication is crucial for diagnosis and support. The pressure to uphold harmony can prevent individuals, particularly children who are at the bottom of the familial hierarchy, from voicing personal struggles, especially when these issues challenge parental authority.

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Yet, not all families influenced by Confucian values experience social harmony as a barrier to mental health care in the same way. In a qualitative study conducted in Singapore, Lim and Lim (2016) explored how families engaged with systemic psychotherapy and found that when social harmony was understood not as avoidance of conflict but as active collaboration, it facilitated meaningful engagement with therapeutic processes. In these families, the value of upholding social harmony motivated participants to support one another's healing for the sake of preserving relational unity. Mental health professionals working in these contexts found that aligning therapeutic goals with the value of harmony, such as reframing treatment as a means of restoring family balance instead of impeding the balance, improved receptiveness to mental health services. The case described in Lim and Lim (2016) is special, not the norm, because it reflects a reinterpretation of Confucian harmony that is less traditional and shaped by external influences like education and more modern cultural norms. In traditional Confucian ethics, as illustrated by this quote from Analects 1:12, "If the ruler is himself correct, all will go well even though he does not give orders; but if he himself is not correct, even though he gives orders, they will not be obeyed." Social harmony is often preserved through emotional restraint to suppress conflict, especially within hierarchical family systems. What makes the families in Lim and Lim's study different is that they redefined harmony not as the absence of conflict, but as the active presence of cooperation and mutual care. This is a progressive application of Confucian principles. Such positive outcomes, therefore, are contingent on a re-interpretation of harmony that allows for open expression within respectful boundaries. Without this re-interpretation, social harmony as a principle of Confucianism remains detrimental to individuals with mental health struggles because it can discourage the openness needed for effective mental health interventions.

CONCLUSION:

This paper has argued that while Confucianism plays a foundational role in shaping social and familial norms in Singapore, its principles, particularly filial piety (孝) and social harmony (和谐), ultimately have a detrimental impact on family-based mental health interventions. Confucianism's emphasis on hierarchical obligation and the preservation of relational stability reinforces environments where mental illness is stigmatized and, therefore, professional help-seeking is discouraged.

Filial piety imposes strict expectations of obedience and sacrifice, often making individuals silence their emotional struggles out of fear of disrupting the family reputation. Likewise, social harmony, when interpreted as the avoidance of conflict and the prioritization of external appearances, reinforces the idea that psychological distress should be handled privately, if not concealed entirely. Families, therefore, chose internal problem-solving over professional consultation, not because of a lack of need, but because Confucian ideals make external intervention feel culturally inappropriate.

Though isolated cases, such as those in Lim and Lim's (2016) study, show that Confucian values can be reinterpreted to support collective healing, such examples are exceptions, not the norm. The broader reality coming from traditional texts like the Analects is that filial piety and social harmony hinder open communication and access to mental health resources, especially for those who need it most.

Therefore, to improve mental health outcomes in Singapore, interventions must go beyond clinical models and directly engage with the cultural frameworks that perpetuate emotional suppression and stigma. Recognizing how Confucianism shapes resistance to mental health care is a necessary step toward helping those who are suffering, which continues to persist behind the façade of family harmony and duty.



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FROM SYNCRETISM TO MAJORITARIANISM: THE EVOLUTION OF RELIGIOUS TOLERANCE FROM AKBAR'S RULE TO BJP-LED INDIA

WRITTEN BY ASHITA AGARWAL



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ABSTRACT

This investigation explores how the nature of religious policies in the eras of both the Mughal emperor, Akbar (1556-1605) and the government of Bharatiya Janta Party (BJP) (2014-), examining shifts in religious tolerance, legal frameworks, and political narratives. It argues that Akbar's model of syncretism was a pragmatic governance strategy rather than an ideological commitment to religious unity, shaped by monarchical power structures. Conversely, the BJP's policies arise from democratic imperatives, where electoral success depends on mobilizing religious identity. While Akbar's approach fostered interfaith cooperation, the BJP's policies politicized religion to consolidate power, normalizing exclusionary attitudes. This research underscores how religious policy, whether in an imperial or democratic context, serves as a tool for statecraft, shaping societal cohesion or division. By analyzing historical and contemporary governance, this study highlights the long-term implications of religious policy in shaping national identity, questioning whether pluralism remains viable in India's evolving political landscape.

INTRODUCTION

This investigation explores how the nature of religious policies in the eras of both the Mughal emperor, Akbar (1556-1605) and the government of Bharatiya Janta Party (BJP) (2014-), examining shifts in religious tolerance, legal frameworks, and political narratives. It argues that Akbar's model of syncretism was a pragmatic governance strategy rather than an ideological commitment to religious unity, shaped by monarchical power structures. Conversely, the BJP's policies arise from democratic imperatives, where electoral success depends on mobilizing religious identity. While Akbar's approach fostered interfaith cooperation, the BJP's policies politicized religion to consolidate power, normalizing exclusionary attitudes. This research underscores how religious policy, whether in an imperial or democratic context, serves as a tool for statecraft, shaping societal cohesion or division. By analyzing historical and contemporary governance, this study highlights the long-term implications of religious policy in shaping national identity, questioning whether pluralism remains viable in India's evolving political landscape.

Existing scholarship on Hindu-Muslim relations in India often examines either Akbar's religious policies or the rise of Hindutva but rarely juxtaposes them in a comparative framework. For example, Richard Eaton's *India in the Persianate Age* explores how Indo-Islamic cultural synthesis shaped governance, while Christophe Jaffrelot's *Hindu Nationalism: A Reader* traces the ideological evolution of Hindutva. However, these works do not directly connect Akbar's syncretic governance to contemporary Hindu-Muslim political dynamics under the BJP. This study bridges that gap by employing a comparative historical analysis, assessing religious inclusivity, interfaith relations in political rhetoric, historical reinterpretation, and using religion as a political tool.

The evaluation is based on four key criteria: (1) Religious inclusivity in governance is assessed through legal policies and state-supported religious initiatives. (2) The portrayal of interfaith relations in political discourse, including rhetoric and policy narratives. (3) The role of historical interpretation in shaping national identity, particularly through education and media. (4) The use of religion as a tool for political consolidation, comparing Akbar's integrationist approach with the BJP's majoritarian strategies. By applying these criteria, this research seeks to determine whether Akbar's legacy serves as a historical counterpoint to current sectarian politics or has been co-opted to justify exclusivist narratives in modern India. It examines how shifts in governance, legal frameworks, and public discourse reflect broader changes in the state's relationship with religious pluralism.

¹Partha N. Mukherji, "The Indian State in Crisis? Nationalism and Nation-Building," *Sociological Bulletin* 43, no. 1 (March 1994): 21–49, <https://www.jstor.org/stable/23634572>.

²Richard M. Eaton, "India in the Persianate Age, 1000–1765," *Internet Archive* (Penguin, August 16, 2020), <https://archive.org/details/india-in-the-persianate-age-richard-eaton/>;

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RELIGIOUS TOLERANCE IN GOVERNANCE

Akbar's governance institutionalized religious inclusivity, exemplified by the abolition of the *jizya* tax in 1564, which had long imposed a financial burden on non-Muslim subjects. Removing this tax reduced economic discrimination and symbolized state neutrality in religious matters. This shift was reinforced by Akbar's recruitment of Hindu officials, most notably Rajput leaders such as Raja Man Singh and Birbal, whose administrative influence extended beyond token representation. Their presence in key military and political positions indicated a deliberate effort to integrate Hindu elites into the Mughal state, aligning governance with the principles of *Sulh-i-Kul*. Historian Satish Chandra argues that these policies were not merely symbolic gestures but structural changes that redefined imperial authority as religiously pluralistic rather than exclusively Islamic.

Beyond governance, Akbar actively facilitated interfaith exchange by commissioning Persian translations of Hindu texts, including the Mahabharata and the Ramayana. These efforts made Hindu religious and philosophical traditions accessible to Persian-speaking Muslim elites, fostering intellectual engagement across faiths. Roy Burman highlights that such initiatives contributed to a shared cultural ethos, influencing later developments in both Sufism and the Bhakti movement. Akbar's reverence for Sufi saints, particularly Khwaja Muinuddin Chishti, further reinforced this synthesis. His patronage of the Ajmer Dargah, a major pilgrimage site for both Hindus and Muslims, exemplified his commitment to fostering interfaith unity. However, his religious policies were not without resistance. His *Din-i-Ilahi*, an eclectic spiritual doctrine combining elements of Hinduism, Islam, Christianity, and Zoroastrianism, faced skepticism from both orthodox Muslims and conservative Hindus. While *Sulh-i-Kul* was an inclusive administrative policy, *Din-i-Ilahi* reflected a more personal spiritual experiment that ultimately failed to gain widespread acceptance. Nonetheless, it underscored the extent to which Akbar sought to transcend sectarian divisions, positioning religious pluralism as a central tenet of his rule.

Richard Eaton, in *India in the Persianate Age*, contextualizes his decision to abolish the *jizya* tax within the broader Persianate world, arguing that Akbar's policies reflected a sophisticated blend of Persian and Indic traditions. By removing barriers to religious integration, Akbar positioned himself as an emperor above sectarian divisions, seeking to establish a political order that prioritized governance over religious orthodoxy. His support for syncretic religious movements, such as the Bhakti and Sufi traditions, further reinforced this vision. These movements, which emphasized personal devotion over rigid doctrinal distinctions, aligned with Akbar's goal of uniting his subjects under a shared cultural framework. His religious ideology, known as *Din-i-Ilahi*, attempted to fuse elements of different faiths into a single ethical system, demonstrating his commitment to transcending traditional religious divides.

The contrasting approaches of Akbar's religious policies and the BJP-led government's political strategies can largely be attributed to the difference between a monarchical system and a democratic framework. Akbar wielded absolute power, enabling him to implement policies aligned with his vision of unity and stability. His religious inclusivity and syncretism fostered social cohesion across his vast, diverse empire, serving as tools of governance rather than responses to public sentiment. Policies like abolishing the *jizya* tax and promoting Hindu institutions reflected his pragmatic approach to consolidating authority and maintaining order.

³Satish Chandra, "Medieval India: From Sultanate to the Mughals (1526-1748)," Internet Archive, 1978, <https://archive.org/details/dli.ernet.4039>.

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In contrast, the BJP's policies are shaped by the imperatives of democratic governance in India, where political strategies are inextricably linked to securing votes and maintaining political power through election cycles. Democracy, by its very nature, is dependent on the support of the people, and the BJP, like all political parties, must appeal to its electoral base. This has led to the emergence of a majoritarian political rhetoric, where religious identity is often employed as a means to galvanize support among the Hindu majority. In a democratic system, policies are often shaped by populist pressures, and political parties tend to cater to the sentiments of the largest voting blocks. In this context, religious nationalism, as seen in the BJP's political agenda, is not only a means of consolidating votes but also a method of mobilizing public opinion through the portrayal of religious identity as central to the nation's cultural and political future. This form of political discourse is inherently polarizing, as it seeks to define the nation in exclusionary terms, emphasizing the dominance of one religious group over others, which can alienate minorities.

In contrast, the BJP's governance reflects a shift from religious inclusivity to majoritarianism. Since its rise to power in 2014, the party has pursued legal and political measures that redefine India's secular framework along Hindutva lines. One of the most significant examples is the Citizenship Amendment Act (CAA) of 2019, which expedites Indian citizenship for non-Muslim refugees from Pakistan, Afghanistan, and Bangladesh while explicitly excluding Muslims. This law marks a departure from Akbar's integrative approach, embedding religious discrimination into the legal structure of the state. Jaffrelot argues that the CAA reconfigures Indian citizenship from a secular identity to an ethno-religious construct, aligning governance with the broader Hindutva vision.

The CAA does not merely alter citizenship laws; it redefines the very foundations of Indian identity. By legally differentiating citizenship based on religious affiliation, the state has introduced a new criterion for belonging that prioritizes historical grievance over constitutional values. This shift raises critical questions—does Indian identity now rest on a selective reading of history rather than a commitment to inclusive nationhood? Moreover, the CAA sets a precedent that could extend beyond citizenship. If religious identity becomes an accepted basis for state policy, it could influence future decisions regarding education, employment, and even voting rights. Over time, such policies may create an India where inclusivity is no longer assumed but conditional, shaped by the political needs of those in power rather than by the principles enshrined in its constitution.

Similarly, BJP-led state governments have introduced anti-conversion laws that criminalize religious conversions under the pretext of preventing “forced conversions.” These laws, selectively enforced against Muslims and Christians, reinforce Hindu dominance in the legal framework. Priya Singh highlights how the legal codification of religious identity under the BJP not only restricts individual freedoms but also institutionalizes systemic discrimination, thereby eroding India's secular legal framework. Arshad Alam observes that pluralism is not an inherent societal condition but a political construct that must be actively maintained.

⁴ Christophe Jaffrelot and Cynthia Schoch, “Modi's India: Hindu Nationalism and the Rise of Ethnic Democracy,” JSTOR (Princeton University Press, 2021), <https://www.jstor.org/stable/j.ctv1dc9jzx>.

⁵ Priya Singh, “Religious Freedom and the Law in India: Politics, Society, and Legal Perspectives,” (London: Routledge, 2022), <https://ia902901.us.archive.org/20/items/dli.doa.190/190.pdf>.

⁶ Arshad Alam, “Islam and Religious Pluralism in India,” *India International Centre Quarterly* 40, no. 3/4 (2013): 47–64, <https://doi.org/10.2307/24394389>.

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Although Akbar's policies of religious inclusion may seem fundamentally opposed to the BJP's Hindu nationalist agenda, it is important to consider them within the distinct political realities of their time. Akbar's syncretism was not an inevitable product of medieval India's sociopolitical landscape but rather a strategic response to the immediate needs of governing a vast and religiously diverse empire. The conditions that made his policies viable—absolute monarchy, centralized power, and the lack of mass political mobilization—differ fundamentally from the democratic structures shaping contemporary Indian politics. This distinction is crucial in ensuring that the comparison remains grounded in governance rather than implying a direct historical trajectory from Mughal pluralism to modern religious nationalism.

A direct comparison of Akbar's policies and BJP-led governance reveals a fundamental shift from pluralism to exclusivism. Akbar's abolition of the *jizya* tax and recruitment of Hindu officials institutionalized religious inclusivity, whereas the BJP's legal framework—through the CAA and anti-conversion laws—creates institutional barriers for religious minorities. Akbar's support for Hindu texts and Sufi traditions reinforced shared cultural spaces, while the BJP's Hindutva-driven policies favor Hindu heritage at the expense of Muslim religious and cultural institutions. Most critically, Akbar's governance integrated multiple faiths into the administrative structure, while the BJP has politicized religious identity to consolidate Hindu majoritarian rule.

Under the BJP, state institutions do not merely enforce religious segregation; they actively reshape social behavior and public attitudes toward religious identity. Legal and policy shifts have institutionalized religious hierarchy, but more importantly, they have normalized exclusionary attitudes within Indian society itself. The transformation is not limited to governance—it extends into education, bureaucracy, and law enforcement, creating a feedback loop in which religious division is not just imposed by the state but also internalized by the people. The long-term danger of this shift is that religious segregation ceases to be seen as a political project and instead becomes a social reality, reinforced by institutions at every level. If pluralism is no longer electorally viable, does it stand a chance of survival outside the political sphere? Or will Akbar's legacy of inclusivity become politically obsolete, remembered only as a historical anomaly rather than a viable governance model?

Roy Burman highlights that Akbar's commitment to syncretism was transformative in shaping India's religious pluralism. However, modern India faces an erosion of this legacy under the BJP's ideological framework, which reinterprets Akbar's policies through a Hindu nationalist lens rather than as a model of coexistence. While Akbar's *Sulh-i-Kul* sought to unify, the BJP's governance entrenched religious divisions, demonstrating a stark departure from the pluralistic ethos of the Mughal period.

Modern India faces not only an erosion of Akbar's legacy but also a broader shift in how history is used as a tool of governance. When history is rewritten to erase interfaith cooperation, the consequences extend far beyond academic debate. Future generations may come to see religious conflict as the natural state of Indian society rather than a product of political manipulation. The battle over Akbar's legacy, therefore, is not just about historical accuracy but about shaping national consciousness. If narratives of Hindu-Muslim unity are systematically removed from public discourse, pluralism may cease to be a societal aspiration altogether.

⁷ Roy Burman, "Hindu-Muslim Syncretism in India," *Economic and Political Weekly* 31, no. 20 (May 18, 1996): 1211–15, <https://doi.org/10.2307/4404148>.

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STATE-SPONSORED RELIGIOUS PATRONAGE

Akbar's religious patronage extended beyond mere tolerance to active engagement with multiple faiths, particularly Hinduism and Sufism. His court became a hub of intellectual and theological exchange, where scholars from diverse religious backgrounds debated matters of faith at the Ibadat Khana in Fatehpur Sikri. This inclusivity was not simply a reflection of Akbar's curiosity but a deliberate political strategy aimed at fostering unity within his vast and religiously diverse empire. His policies sought to dismantle the rigid barriers between religious communities, promoting a syncretic ethos that allowed various traditions to coexist under a unified imperial framework. Alam argues that Akbar's engagement with Islamic and Persianate political traditions was not a rejection of Islam but a strategic adaptation to India's pluralistic context, demonstrating how religious inclusivity was historically a pragmatic tool of governance rather than a radical departure from tradition. Scholars such as Lisa Balabanlilar argue in *Imperial Identity in the Mughal Empire* that Akbar's patronage of Hindu institutions was instrumental in cultivating loyalty among his non-Muslim subjects, reinforcing his authority through a calculated policy of cultural synthesis. This included royal sponsorship of Hindu temples, participation in Hindu festivals, and even marriages with Rajput princesses, which symbolized the emperor's commitment to inclusivity.

While Akbar's policies of inclusivity sought to foster a national identity that transcended religious boundaries, contemporary governance often seems more focused on emphasizing and exploiting religious divisions for political gains. The underlying challenge today is that policies are increasingly shaping the cultural and social fabric, subtly redefining what it means to be Indian. Where once diversity was celebrated, it risks being portrayed as a source of fragmentation.

Akbar's legal reforms were equally groundbreaking. The issuance of the Mahzar decree in 1579 marked a decisive moment in Mughal governance, as it positioned the emperor as the supreme arbiter of religious affairs. This decree effectively curtailed the power of the Islamic ulama, who traditionally held authority over matters of religious law, and transferred decision-making power to the emperor himself. This shift reflected Akbar's broader effort to centralize authority and weaken institutionalized religious orthodoxy that could challenge his rule. By asserting imperial supremacy over religious jurisprudence, Akbar ensured that governance remained adaptable to the empire's pluralistic realities. His policies allowed Hindu legal customs to coexist with Islamic law, creating a hybrid legal system that accommodated multiple traditions without enforcing the primacy of one over the other. Burman, in *Hindu-Muslim Syncretism in India*, argues that this legal pluralism was a defining feature of Akbar's rule, setting a precedent for a governance model that prioritized social harmony over religious rigidity.

Before comparing religious policies, it is necessary to reaffirm that this paper does not argue for a linear historical progression from Akbar's governance to modern-day India. The rise of Hindu nationalism is not simply a reaction against Mughal rule but a product of contemporary electoral dynamics, mass political mobilization, and ideological shifts in post-independence India. While historical narratives are often employed to justify modern political agendas, the BJP's policies should be understood primarily through the lens of democratic electoral imperatives rather than as an inevitable consequence of centuries of religious interaction. This distinction reinforces that, despite historical references, the primary drivers of both Akbar's and the BJP's policies lie in their immediate political structures.

⁸ Muzaffar Alam, *The Languages of Political Islam in India, c. 1200–1800* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2004), 179–205. <https://archive.org/details/muzaffar-alam-the-languages-of-political-islam-india-1200-1800-university-of-chicago-press-2004/page/n3/mode/2up>.

⁹ Lisa Balabanlilar, "Imperial Identity in the Mughal Empire: Memory and Dynastic Politics in Early Modern South and Central Asia," *dokumen.pub*, 2012, <https://dokumen.pub/imperial-identity-in-the-mughal-empire-memory-and-dynastic-politics-in-early-modern-south-and-central-asia-9780755624362-9781848857261.html>.

¹⁰ Burman, "Hindu-Muslim Syncretism in India," 1211–15.

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The contrast between Akbar's legal pluralism and contemporary legal developments in India is striking. Under the BJP-led government, legal frameworks have increasingly reflected a Hindu majoritarian outlook, often at the expense of India's historical traditions of religious accommodation. Jaffrelot's *Modi's India* highlights the growing politicization of religious law, particularly in matters such as citizenship policies and personal laws. The abrogation of Article 370, which granted special status to Jammu and Kashmir, and the enactment of the Citizenship Amendment Act (CAA), which provides a pathway to citizenship based on religious identity, mark significant departures from Akbar's vision of an inclusive legal order. These policies reflect a shift toward exclusivity, where legal governance is used as a means of reinforcing religious divisions rather than bridging them. While Akbar's state-sponsored legal and religious policies sought to balance the interests of different communities, contemporary governance increasingly privileges one religious identity over others, signaling a departure from India's syncretic past.

The broader implications of this shift are evident in the contested nature of religious sites and legal disputes over historical narratives. Akbar's era witnessed state-sponsored support for religious institutions across faiths, exemplified by his grants to Hindu temples and his encouragement of architectural projects that blended Islamic and Hindu motifs. This legacy of shared cultural heritage is now under threat, as contemporary political discourse often seeks to emphasize religious exclusivity rather than syncretism. The Babri Masjid-Ram Janmabhoomi dispute, for instance, illustrates the growing tension between historical pluralism and modern religious nationalism. Panikkar argues that the Ayodhya agitation exemplifies how religious symbols are strategically deployed to galvanize mass political support, transforming faith-based disputes into instruments of nationalist rhetoric. The Supreme Court's 2019 verdict, which awarded the disputed land to Hindu claimants while acknowledging the illegality of the mosque's demolition, reflects the complexities of navigating historical claims within contemporary legal frameworks. Thakur critiques the selective application of secularism in India, arguing that legal rulings on religious disputes frequently accommodate majoritarian pressures, as seen in the Ayodhya verdict. Akbar's policies, by contrast, sought to depoliticize religious identity in governance, ensuring that legal and religious institutions functioned in service of the empire's stability rather than sectarian interests.

While modern India grapples with the consequences of religious nationalism, Akbar's legacy offers a stark reminder of the potential for statecraft to unify society. Rather than alienating sections of society, governance rooted in religious inclusivity can weave disparate threads of identity into a cohesive national narrative. Perhaps it is time for contemporary Indian leadership to revisit the spirit of Akbar's syncretism, not as an idealized past but as a practical framework for modern nation-building.

¹¹ Jaffrelot and Schoch, "Modi's India".

K. N. Panikkar, "Religious Symbols and Political Mobilization: The Agitation for a Mandir at Ayodhya," *Social Scientist* 21, no. 7/8 (August 1993): 63, <https://www.jstor.org/stable/3520346>.

¹³ Ramesh Thakur, "Ayodhya and the Politics of India's Secularism: A Double-Standards Discourse," *Asian Survey* 33, no. 7 (July 1993): 645–64, <https://www.jstor.org/stable/2645353>.

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The evolution of religious patronage and legal structures from Akbar's era to the present underscores the political nature of religious engagement in India. While Akbar's policies sought to balance competing religious influences through institutional patronage and legal reform, contemporary policies have increasingly favored religious exclusivity. As Tanvir Anjum explores in *The Emergence of Muslim Rule in India*, early Muslim rulers navigated legal pluralism to maintain stability, a lesson that appears increasingly neglected in modern governance. The historical contrast between Akbar's syncretic state and today's religiously charged politics highlights the enduring tension between inclusivity and majoritarianism in India's legal and political landscape. The shift from legal pluralism to religiously motivated legal reforms represents not just a transformation in policy but a broader ideological reorientation, one that challenges the very foundations of India's historical traditions of coexistence.

Akbar's nuanced approach to religious pluralism reveals not only his political acumen but also an inherent understanding that a diverse society requires far more than mere tolerance—it demands active engagement and respect. This contrasts sharply with today's more divisive political climate, where religion often seems to be employed as a tool for polarization rather than a bridge for societal harmony.

CONCLUSION

This paper has explored the significant contrast between Akbar's policies of religious inclusivity and pluralism during his reign and the BJP-led government's increasingly majoritarian approach in contemporary India. Akbar's religious patronage and legal reforms reflected a pragmatic strategy aimed at fostering unity within a diverse empire, transcending sectarian divides to ensure political stability. In contrast, the BJP's approach is largely shaped by the demands of democracy, where electoral politics and religious identity often intersect to consolidate support, sometimes at the expense of national unity. Key analyses, such as Akbar's engagement with multiple faiths, his legal reforms, and his promotion of syncretism, demonstrate how his policies were integral to the long-term cohesion of his empire. Challenges to this thesis arise from counterarguments suggesting that Akbar's policies, such as the abolition of the jizya tax and the establishment of the Ibadat Khana, were driven more by imperial pragmatism than by genuine religious tolerance. Additionally, the modern-day comparison risks oversimplifying India's complex political and social landscape, particularly given the influence of regional parties and movements in shaping contemporary governance. While this paper has largely focused on Akbar's inclusive governance and its contrast with the BJP's majoritarianism, further exploration of how contemporary governance in India balances religious diversity with political realities could be a valuable avenue for future research.

A broader critique of this comparison might argue that religious policies in India today cannot be fully understood without addressing the long-term developments that shaped them. While historical legacies certainly influence political discourse, this paper has focused on short-term governance imperatives rather than tracing deep historical continuities. Akbar's religious inclusivity was a pragmatic response to the challenges of ruling a multi-religious empire, just as the BJP's majoritarian policies reflect the pressures of electoral democracy. By isolating these case studies, this analysis highlights how political structures—rather than historical inevitability—are the primary determinants of religious policy.

¹⁴ Tanvir Anjum, "The Emergence of Muslim Rule in India: Some Historical Disconnects and Missing Links," *Islamic Studies* 46, no. 2 (2007): 217–40, <https://doi.org/10.2307/20839068>.

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Akbar's approach to religious tolerance was revolutionary in its time, but it may have been more a tool for political stability than a genuine effort to eradicate religious prejudice. While he worked to create a more harmonious society within his empire, there's a question of whether true religious understanding and reconciliation were possible under the weight of imperial ambitions. The challenge today is whether religious tolerance can be anything more than a political strategy, or whether it can foster a truly equitable society in which all faiths are genuinely embraced.

In an era where political rhetoric often exploits religious divisions, Akbar's emphasis on a shared cultural framework could offer a timely reminder. Perhaps a governance policy grounded in religious inclusivity and pluralism could once again offer a path forward for a nation struggling with internal strife. The challenge lies in translating Akbar's ideals into a modern context, where diverse voices are tolerated and embraced in the governance process.

The selective manipulation of history today risks creating a fractured identity in which different groups claim ownership over past events to justify their political dominance. In contrast, Akbar's historical approach sought to unify his empire through a shared understanding of the past, one that acknowledged diversity rather than erasing it. Can a nation's historical narrative be a source of unity, or will it continue to fuel divisions?



COLONIAL MONOPOLIES AND INDUSTRIAL DECLINE: THE IMPACT OF THE BRITISH EAST INDIA COMPANY ON LOCAL INDUSTRIAL DEVELOPMENT IN INDIA, 1608-1874

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ABSTRACT

This report examines the impact of the British East India Company's colonial rule on industrialization in India between 1608 and 1874. It explores key historical events that contributed to the stagnation of Indian industries under British rule, highlighting how dominant colonial powers leveraged economic policies to suppress local enterprise and industrialization. The analysis underscores the systematic exploitation of resources, the imposition of excessive taxation, the decline of indigenous handicrafts, and the displacement of labor—strategies designed to maximize British economic interests while stifling India's industrial growth.

INTRODUCTION

This research report investigates to what extent the trade policies of the British East India Company (BEIC) between 1608 and 1874 have hindered India's local industrial progress. The BEIC was established by Queen Elizabeth I, as the first joint-stock company and one of the largest corporations of its time, the East India Company, dominated over 50% of global trade during the mid-1700s and early 1800s between Europe, South Asia, and the Far East by exploiting modern trade routes, and redirecting returns to Britain, flourishing British industrialisation. In the process, it played a central role in the colonization of modern-day India, Pakistan, Bangladesh, and Burma.

Many Indian historians argue that the BEIC's methods to prevent Indian industrialisation were focused on increased taxation. However, this paper argues that the BEIC's demand for changing manufacturing from finished goods to raw materials was a key factor as well. This was through utilizing local markets to advocate British finished goods whilst shifting Indian manufacturing solely to raw material production. Through reviewing the existing literature and conducting deep research regarding industrial growth, an existential gap was found. By using significant primary data collections, which have been listed throughout this paper, and significant secondary quantitative data regarding trade data, taxation influx, cotton prices and high levels of qualitative research regarding handicraft extinction and job displacement, this field of study is highly interconnected with the industrialisation of Indian progress, it highlights how dominant powers seize and utilise prominent policies to eradicate profits, steal resources and maximise self-demand and exposure to trade. It is a testimonial that demonstrates political powers that embody supremacy and dominate societies with a drastically negative impact.

These methods highlight the BEIC's use of increased taxation and handicraft extinction to influence the negative hindrance on local industrialisation within India. However, Indian manufacturing, from finished goods to raw material production, was a possibly more significant causation for this hindrance.

¹ "Trading Places," Google Books, 2025, https://books.google.com.sg/books?id=6g5XwAEACAAJ&redir_esc=y; "British Colonialism in India - the British Empire - KS3 History - Homework Help for Year 7, 8 and 9.," BBC Bitesize, n.d., <https://www.bbc.co.uk/bitesize/articles/zx8sf82#z6jvbqt>.

² National Trust, "What Was the East India Company? | History," National Trust, 2023, <https://www.nationaltrust.org.uk/discover/history/what-was-the-east-india-company>.

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SECTION 1: TAXATION DUTIES ON KEY INDUSTRIES

Taxation and tariff implementations played a significant role in restricting industrial growth. During British colonial rule, the British East India Company promulgated high tariffs on Indian finished goods. This crippled local industrial manufacturing, inclusive of cotton textiles, and expanded to other artisanal industries. Additionally, export profits were redirected to Britain, further strengthening its economy at the expense of India’s industrial progress. The highly profitable textile industry within India’s economy faced steep taxation increases of 70–80% on its goods, specifically local cotton production and handicrafts, as a result of their unique qualities compelling European demand through their authentic designs and rich quality. Its distribution within local trade markets further suppresses local industrialization.

RAW COTTON PRICES BETWEEN BRITAIN AND INDIA			
YEAR			
	GB (d per lb)	India (d per lb)	GB/India (India=100)
1710	8	4.4	182
1740	9	4.6	196
1792-93	24	5.0	480
1802-03	14	6.3	222
1812-13	20	6.3	317
1822-23	8	6.3	127

Figure 1: Raw cotton prices (d) between Britain and India, 1710 to 1823.

Stephen Broadberry and Bishnupriya Gupta, “Cotton Textiles and the Great Divergence: Lancashire, India and Shifting Competitive Advantage,” n.d.,

<https://www.lse.ac.uk/Economic-History/Assets/Documents/Research/GEHN/GEHNConferences/conf6/Conf6-BroadberryGupta.pdf>.

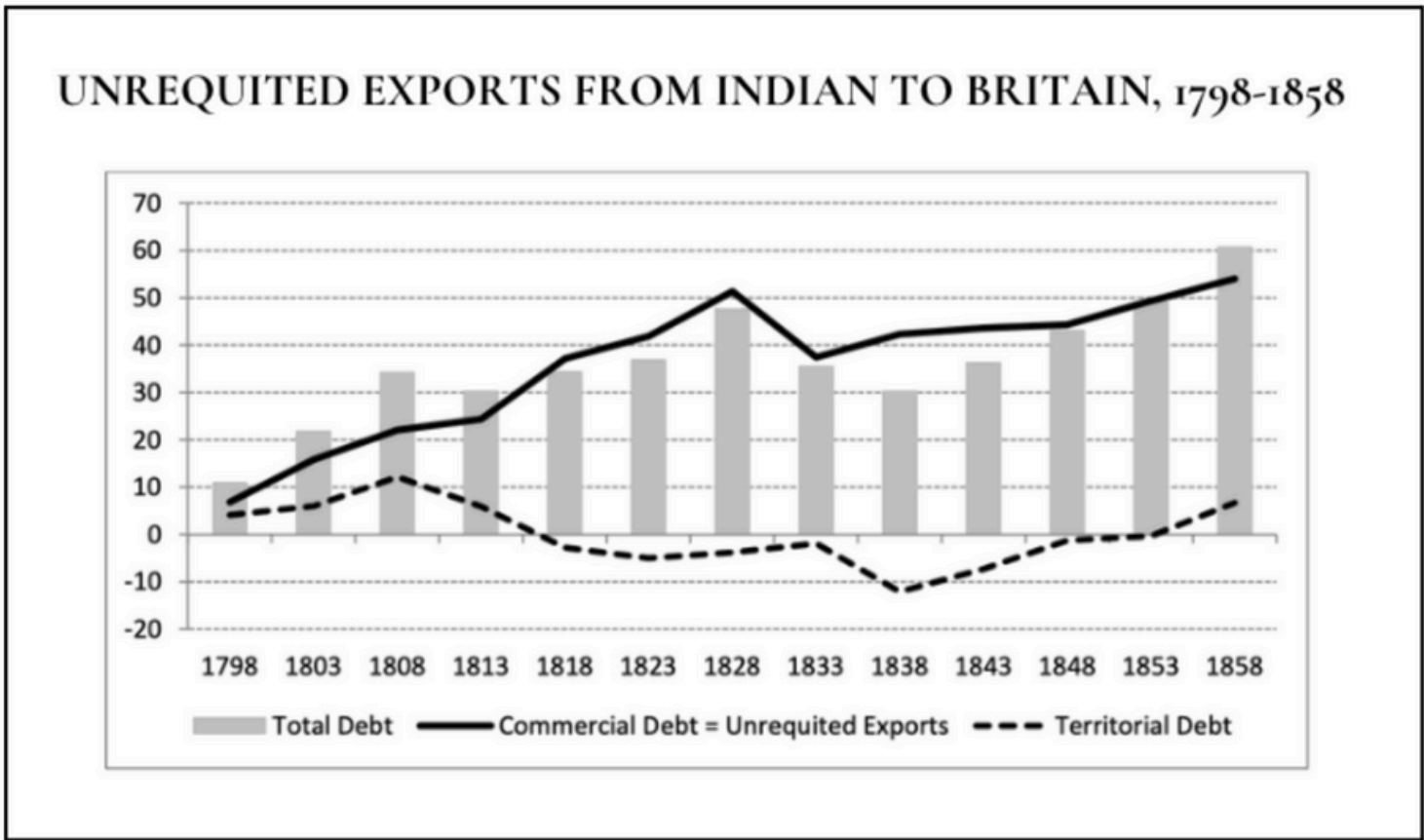


Figure 2: Unrequited Exports from India to Britain, 1798-1858. |

Pilar Nogues-Marco, “Measuring Colonial Extraction: The East India Company’s Rule and the Drain of Wealth (1757–1858),” *Capitalism: A Journal of History and Economics* 2, no. 1 (2021): 154–95,

<https://doi.org/10.1353/cap.2021.0004>.

³ “Inglorious Empire,” Google Books, 2018, https://books.google.com.sg/books?id=ZWwwDwAAQBAJ&pg=PT22&redir_esc=y#v=onepage&q&f=false.

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Heavy financial burdens severely restricted textile manufacturing exports while maximizing profits for the British East India Company and British industrial growth. Indian textiles, specifically exquisite cotton fabrics like muslin and calico, sparked highly unanticipated demand in Europe. Regional demand was inspired by the idiosyncratic local Indian artisanal designs exported from the 1680s. Raw cotton production from India only competed with approximately 30% to 55% with British raw cotton prices between 1710 and 1823 [Fig. 1]. British weavers and textile manufacturers thus struggled in production, in competency against the rich-heavy meritoriousness and cost-effective consumption of Indian cotton textiles and artisanal industries.

In the early 1700s, India contributed to 27% of global textile exports, positioning its textile industry as a vision for local industrialization, but this dropped to 2% during the post-rule of the BEIC. The BEIC's parliament members' expansion enforced political decision-making and increased the maliciously traced back unrequited exports to the British economy. Systematically eradicating local industrialization, they eroded India's global market share, crippling its once-dominant manufacturing sector. Unrequited exports transported to Britain subsequently increased industrial debt within cross-industries, specifically with handicrafts and cotton [Fig. 2]. Subsequent law enforcement limited firm expandability and directed lucrative efficacy to European markets, specifically Great Britain, further emphasizing selfish British redirection of profit and utilizing the trade monopoly to exploit India's trading exports, deducting crucial visionaries of growth for key industries. India started serving as a manufacturing country under the British Raj rule, manufacturing products inclusive of cotton, silk, indigo, tea, and saltpeter for gunpowder creation for other nations and expanding the business's trade systems from local spices to weaponry. These cumulatively increased profit, tax revenue, and expenditure. [Fig. 3] By 1744, the British had made 70 grams of gold exquisitely from tax income depleted from Indian profitability. [Fig. 3]

⁴ "Textbook in Heritage Crafts for Class XII Craft Traditions of India Past, Present and Future," n.d., https://www.drishtiias.com/images/pdf/Class_XII_Heritage_Craft_-_Craft_Traditions_of_India.pdf.

⁵ Stephen Broadberry and Bishnupriya Gupta, "Cotton Textiles and the Great Divergence: Lancashire, India and Shifting Competitive Advantage," n.d., <https://www.lse.ac.uk/Economic-History/Assets/Documents/Research/GEHN/GEHNConferences/conf6/Conf6-BroadberryGupta.pdf>.

⁶ "Inglorious Empire," Google Books, 2018, https://books.google.com.sg/books?id=ZWwwDwAAQBAJ&pg=PT22&redir_esc=y#v=onepage&q&f=false.

⁷ Anthony Webster, "The Political Economy of Trade Liberalization: The East India Company Charter Act of 1813," *The Economic History Review* 43, no. 3 (August 1990): 404, <https://doi.org/10.2307/2596940>.

⁸ American Battlefield Trust, "The British East India Company," American Battlefield Trust, December 5, 2023, <https://www.battlefields.org/learn/articles/british-east-india-company>.

⁹ Dan Bogart, "The East Indian Monopoly and the Transition from Limited Access in England, 1600-1813," n.d., <https://www.nber.org/system/files/chapters/c13506/revisions/c13506.rev0.pdf>.

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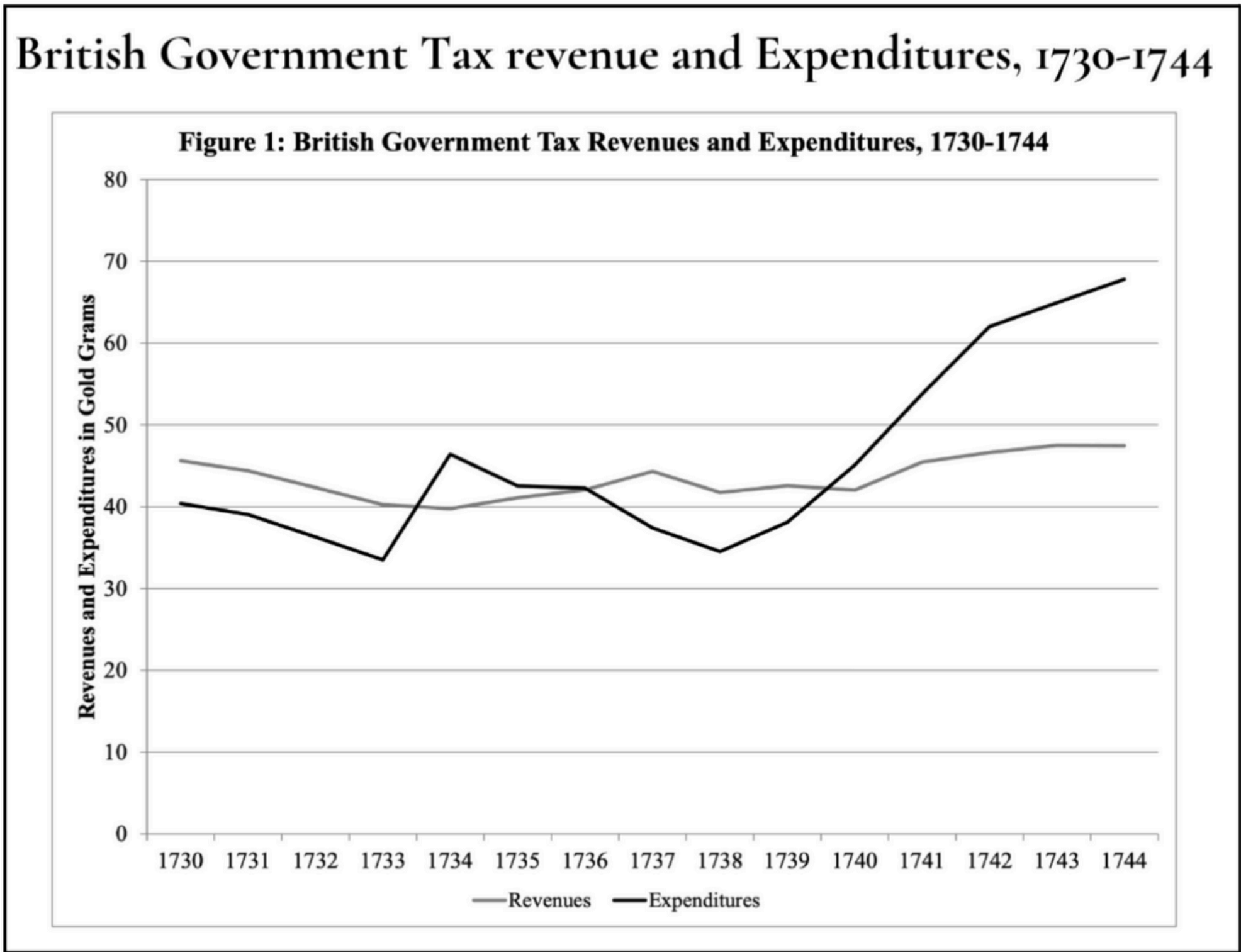


Figure 3: British Government Tax Revenue and Expenditures, 1730-1744

Dan Bogart, “The East Indian Monopoly and the Transition from Limited Access in England, 1600-1813,” n.d., <https://www.nber.org/system/files/chapters/c13506/revisions/c13506.rev0.pdf>.

India’s dependency on local European demand was taken advantage of by the BEIC’s enforced law entitlements. Such laws like the Calico Act (1700 & 1721) banned all imports of finished cotton textiles to Britain, traumatizing industrial manufacturing, and laboriously indicating local raw cotton be exported to Britain and sold from then forward. By 1840, Indian cotton textiles exported to Britain faced a 10% tax, silk 20%, and wool 30%, while British products entering India were taxed at only 3.5%. Economist Bishnupriya Gupta suggests, “The changes in the International Textile market have been a central issue in explaining the rise of Britain as the industrial power”. The BEIC’s unrequited exports subsequently increased industrial stagnancy, hindering globally acknowledged Indian firms from contributing to India’s long-term economic and industrial stability. Additionally, Britain successfully increased the shares it had taken from cotton exports from the Indian economy. In 1810, the British occupied 0.1% of shares for the cotton textiles sold, yet by the post-colonial rule in 1890, the British accounted for 51.8% of shares from the average annual Indian consumption of local cotton textiles [Fig. 4].

¹⁰ Stephen Broadberry and Bishnupriya Gupta, “Cotton Textiles and the Great Divergence: Lancashire, India and Shifting Competitive Advantage,” n.d., <https://www.lse.ac.uk/Economic-History/Assets/Documents/Research/GEHN/GEHNConferences/conf6/Conf6-BroadberryGupta.pdf>.

¹¹ *ibid*

¹² Pilar Nogues-Marco, “Measuring Colonial Extraction: The East India Company’s Rule and the Drain of Wealth (1757–1858),” *Capitalism: A Journal of History and Economics* 2, no. 1 (2021): 154–95, <https://doi.org/10.1353/cap.2021.0004>.

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	<i>Annual average Indian consumption of cotton textiles (million yards)</i>	<i>Share taken by British exports (%)</i>
1810–19	1,890	0.1
1820–9	1,890	1.3
1830–9	1,926	2.7
1840–9	1,998	11.5
1850–9	2,142	21.8
1860–9	2,250	24.9
1870–9	2,570	40.1
1880–9	3,200	61.4
1890–9	3,550	51.8

Figure 4: British cotton textile exports in the Indian Market, 1810-19 to 1890-99

Pilar Nogues-Marco, “Measuring Colonial Extraction: The East India Company’s Rule and the Drain of Wealth (1757–1858),” *Capitalism: A Journal of History and Economics* 2, no. 1 (2021): 154–95, <https://doi.org/10.1353/cap.2021.0004>.

Analyzing the numerical increases in taxation and tariff rate between the BEIC rule from 1604 to 1874 played a devastating role in crippling India’s industrial growth. High tariffs on Indian textiles, specifically cotton, combined with unrequited exporting to Britain led to the decline of India’s once-thriving manufacturing sector, stifling local industry and displacing enticeable and skilled workers into unstable agricultural labor, deepening rural poverty. This section also considers how British colonial control over the country’s industrialization was a key advantage for British gain. Maliciously, these policies exacerbated and dismantled industrialization, economic growth, and wealth within India’s landscape.

SECTION 2: LABOUR MARKET DISPLACEMENT & HANDICRAFT EXTINCTION

The British East India Company's (BEIC) taxation policies not only hindered industrial growth but also oppressed individual economic freedom, forcing enticeable workers into exploitative labor conditions. As India's industrial strain intensified, over 68% of the workforce suffered from labor displacement and got transferred into the unpredictable agricultural sector during the post-rule of the BEIC in 1900. Amidst the BEIC's heavy tax duties on Indian products, combined with cheap British imports, traditional industry modernization of exquisites like textiles and handicrafts significantly declined. The East India Company's colonial rule not only hindered industrial growth but also expanded its oppressive policies to other sectors, particularly unique artisanal businesses.

¹³ Anthony Webster, “The Political Economy of Trade Liberalization: The East India Company Charter Act of 1813,” *The Economic History Review* 43, no. 3 (August 1990): 404, <https://doi.org/10.2307/2596940>.

¹⁴ David Clingingsmith et al., “We Are Grateful for Advice and Criticism From,” 2004, https://www.nber.org/system/files/working_papers/w10586/w10586.pdf.

COLONIAL MONOPOLIES AND INDUSTRIAL DECLINE: THE IMPACT OF THE BRITISH EAST INDIA COMPANY ON LOCAL INDUSTRIAL DEVELOPMENT IN INDIA, 1608-1874

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The British East India Company's land reform policies engaged subsequent colonial monopolies to concentrate the BEIC profitability by hindering Industrial growth. Among three specific systems, the Permanent Settlement, initiated by Lord Cornwallis, had the most significant impact on industrial growth during the British East India Company rule. This Settlement used zamindars, who were landowning intermediaries, typically members of the landed aristocracy or wealthy merchants, who were granted the right to collect revenue from peasants. These zamindars, therefore, exploited peasants by demanding higher rents, pushing them into debt and serfdom. This reduced the purchasing power of a large segment of the population, limiting domestic demand for industrial goods. Zamindars focused solely on extracting rent and made no efforts to improve land or agricultural practices. This stagnation in agricultural productivity hindered the development of agro-based industries. These weren't the only operating systems. The Mahalwari system, introduced by northwestern provinces, and the Ryotwari system, initiated by Sir Thomas Munro, were other land revenue systems established to create a more equitable and efficient land revenue collection process. However, these 2 systems generally allowed for more flexibility and direct engagement with cultivators, potentially fostering a more conducive environment for economic diversification and growth and positive effects on its surroundings. These include how these 2 systems increased government revenue and also the cultivation of barren land to encourage agricultural production and its ability to help families. Therefore, it is symbolic that the Permanent Settlement was a factor of the system during the BEIC rule, which was most significant in hindering industrialization compared to the other systems initiated during the colonial rule.

The agricultural system had already been stressed due to British-imposed land taxes and policies. Certain systematic policies forced farmers into growing crops for British export rather than prioritising local consumption. Consequently, food shortages and high prices became commonplace, leading to widespread famine and malnutrition in certain regions. While British companies profited from the exportation of raw materials, including cotton, jute, and spices, India was left to cope with the economic fallout, as agricultural production could not meet the basic needs of the population. The forced transition from a diverse economy—once rich in craftsmanship, trade, and industry—into a supplier of raw materials left a deep scar on India's economic development, in aims to catalyse the BEIC expansion, through settlement system initiation like the Permanent Settlement. Traditional crafts and industries were not just economically suppressed—they were culturally stunted as well.

Once-thriving artisan industries, which had been crucial to India's social and cultural fabric, faced extinction, replaced by mass-produced foreign goods that lacked the artistry and uniqueness of traditional Indian craftsmanship. With its political dominance over India's trade and industries, the BEIC systematically drained local profits, suppressed entrepreneurship, and stifled economic development, leaving once-thriving sectors in a state of decline. Ultimately, British colonial policies played a pivotal role in deepening rural poverty by systematically dismantling India's industrial base. However, the recognized wealth produced by cotton textiles was highly compensated for food production exports to supply companies in Britain. Agricultural cultivation could not provide individuals with their necessities, financially destabilizing worker reputations and long-term economic growth from degradation. The Indian economy grew about 1% per year from 1880 to 1920, and the population also grew by 1%. The result was, on average, no long-term change in income levels. Agriculture was still dominant, with most peasants at the subsistence level. Extensive irrigation systems were built, providing an impetus for growing cash crops for export and raw materials for Indian industry, especially jute, cotton, sugarcane, coffee, and tea.

¹⁵ "Zamindari System in India - Features, Benefits, Issues & More," Testbook, September 4, 2024, <https://testbook.com/ias-preparation/zamindari-system-in-india>.

¹⁶ Vajiram Editor, "Permanent Settlement, Merits, Demerits, Impacts," User's blog (vajiramandravi, January 27, 2025), <https://vajiramandravi.com/upsc-exam/permanent-settlement/>.

¹⁷ *ibid*

¹⁸ Vajiram Editor, "Mahalwari System, Background, Features, Drawbacks, Impacts," User's blog (vajiramandravi, January 27, 2025), <https://vajiramandravi.com/upsc-exam/mahalwari-system/>; Vajiram Editor, "Ryotwari System, Features, Drawbacks, Impacts, UPSC Notes," User's blog (vajiramandravi, January 27, 2025), <https://vajiramandravi.com/upsc-exam/ryotwari-system/>.

¹⁹ "The Economy in British India | World History," Lumenlearning.com, 2024, <https://courses.lumenlearning.com/suny-worldhistory/chapter/27-3-5-the-economy-in-british-india/>.

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Therefore, the East India Company's economic policies severely undermined India's industrial potential and stunted its agricultural system, leaving the country trapped in a cycle of exploitation and poverty. By prioritizing British profits over Indian well-being, the BEIC not only crushed local industries and crafts but also decimated the livelihoods of millions. The Monopoly's forceful implementations of law enforcement highly sparked job displacement and hindered valued industries like handicrafts and textiles.

SECTION 3: FROM FINISHED GOODS TO RAW MATERIAL PRODUCTION

During the BEIC rule, raw material production in India was among the most affordable and authentic. Henceforth, this successful production was conserved in India's production of finished goods, sparking market appreciation for the Indian economy. Britain seized this opportunity to expand British trade by invading the Indian market, gaining assets from unrequited exports following the trade monopoly's devastating tax burdens on the economy.

By the end of 1875, nearing the BEIC's retreat, the share of Indian market goods made by the British accounted for 55% of goods sold, prioritizing British production and stagnating Indian profitability and industrialization through cross-industries within the country's landscape. Britain's constant enhancement and understanding of the priceless value of finished goods in India enabled the BEIC to scale up raw-material production instead and substitute factors like British Cotton after transporting exports without consent back to the British economy. The BEIC deliberately changed industrial production to raw material manufacturing, such as gold and raw cotton, for finished goods to be produced elsewhere, particularly in Europe. Not only was this utilization of raw materials a distinct way to occupy Indian trade, but it also maximized profit for the British as affordable materials from India reduced fixed and variable costs for firm production and revenue.

The British East India Company's strategy wasn't just about controlling land—it was about controlling economic power. By shifting India from an industrial hub to a resource colony, Britain ensured its economic dominance while keeping India underdeveloped. This economic structure persisted even after the BEIC dissolved, laying the foundation for India's struggle with poverty and industrial lag even after independence in 1947. Its enticeable cycle revolves around 3 key steps.

1. Extracting raw materials from India (such as cotton and gold).
2. Shipping these materials to Britain for manufacturing.
3. Selling the finished products back to India at a higher price.

²⁰ "The Economy in British India | World History," Lumenlearning.com, 2024, <https://courses.lumenlearning.com/suny-worldhistory/chapter/27-3-5-the-economy-in-british-india/>.

²¹ Dan Bogart, "The East Indian Monopoly and the Transition from Limited Access in England, 1600-1813," n.d., <https://www.nber.org/system/files/chapters/c13506/revisions/c13506.rev0.pdf>.

²² US Census Bureau, "India Independence Day (1947): August 15, 2021," Census.gov, August 15, 2022, <https://www.census.gov/newsroom/stories/india-independence-day.html>.

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Additionally, the Indian population's reluctant dependency on these thriving industries soon rendered them redundant as the trade monopoly seized industry manufacturing, resorting to globally demanding products as enticeable firms. With little incentive or resources to develop its industries, India became economically and financially reliant on Britain, while British industries flourished, benefitting from the cheap, raw materials produced in India. This system of economic exploitation was designed to maximize British profits by lowering production costs through access to inexpensive Indian materials while keeping India in a perpetual state of underdevelopment. As raw materials were unrequitedly exported from Indian producers with little compensation for the labor-intensive work, the wealth generated from these resources was siphoned off to benefit Britain. Furthermore, the countries changed their industrial purpose from flourishing textiles and handcrafted artisans to predominantly raw material exportation, minimising export profitability and correlating with the increased industrial pivot and Britain's stamoring victory in long-term development. Henceforth, the monopoly's occupation over the enticeable firms during the British Crown favoured exploitative policies and political decision-making to tangle the industrialisation process within a cycle revolving around raw material manufacturing, particularly in favour of the British. This not only left the country's unique artisanal and textile firms redundant, aspiring favour towards the monopoly, to make sure the British crown was primary over others.

CONCLUSION

The colonial monopoly's seizure over Indian Industrialisation was an event which will forever be known through India's industrial progression throughout the 21st century and beyond. This paper looked into how raw material production was the unnoticed reason for industrial hindrance, contributing more than the more researched possibilities of this effect, inclusive of handicraft extinction, job displacement, and taxation increase, which may remain debatable as individuals may opt to see this hindrance through a different lens. Politicians, specifically in Britain, may see otherwise to their colonial establishment of the British East India Company between 1608 and 1874. This report examines how dominant powers exploit policies to extract profits, resources, and trade advantages, hindering India's industrial progress. It critiques unfair political supremacy that enforces economic dependency and societal harm.

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INDIAN ARMY'S ROLE IN THE INTEGRATION OF THE PRINCELY STATES BETWEEN 1947 AND 1950.

WRITTEN BY SAMARTH BHARAT PURI



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ABSTRACT:

This paper examines the role played by the Indian Army in the integration of the Princely States into the Indian Union between 1947 and 1950. While India is a republic with minimal military influence in civilian affairs, this period saw the Army take on constabulary functions. This paper is framed through Janowitz's theory of the military's transition to a constabulary force, and highlights the role of the Army in the stabilisation of the subcontinent. These findings challenge the notion that the Army was inconsequential in the formation of the Indian Union, and has considerable implications for the modern day Indian military, as it demonstrates how the Indian military's actions between 1947-1950 shaped India's actions in later conflicts with both China and Pakistan, and how they helped to ensure that the military was that of a democratic nation — one that did not interfere in civil affairs.

INTRODUCTION:

India's government is not a junta, stratocracy or a military dictatorship. Instead, it is a republic. As such, India's military has little to no influence over civilian affairs, with the military's role being strictly limited to national defense and maintaining peace and security within the country. This is unlike other nations where the military has high influence over civilian affairs. From the early days of Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru, the Indian political system has deliberately maintained strong civilian leadership at the highest levels, ensuring all decisions taken on national security are taken by elected officials. This democratic structure contrasts with that of other nations, in which militaries play a substantial role in internal politics and policy decisions. Though this has been the case for much of India's history after independence, the Indian Army played a critical role in India's early days and in her formation through events that transpired during the period following independence. The Indian Army was instrumental in the accession of the princely states — where local rulers of more than five hundred states were given the option to accede to either India or Pakistan.

This paper will examine the role of the Indian Army in the integration of the Princely States into India and how its civil and military operations contributed to India's formation as a state during 1947-1950 through the close analysis of primary and secondary sources including journals, museum websites, scholarly articles and other relevant material, while contextualising these developments in India's civil-military relations through Janowitz's framework of a military evolving from a combat force to a constabulary force.

While some argue that the Indian Army did not have a major role in India's formation as a state due to the civilian government's primacy over the military, the Indian Army played a pivotal role in the integration of the Princely States through key operations and attempts to maintain control after a bloody partition. While the former idea has some merit, as armies of other countries with a military dictatorship have occupied a greater role in the politics of their respective nations, the disorganisation of the Indian civil government, especially in once disputed territories such as Junagadh and Kashmir, led to the Indian Army taking on the role of a constabulary force.

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EVOLUTION OF THE INDIAN MILITARY FROM THE BRITISH-INDIAN MILITARY

In order to understand the role of the Indian Army during and after partition, one must first understand the British Indian Army and its evolution into independent India's Army after independence in 1947. In his seminal work 'The Professional Soldier' Morris Janowitz (1971) proposed the theory that in all democratic nations, the military would evolve from being a force solely focused on traditional warfare to a constabulary force, with tasks such as internal security and peacekeeping. India's military evolution during this period was similar to the evolution proposed by Janowitz wherein a military that was originally focused on external conquest gradually assumed roles similar to that of a constabulary force. Although this theory was proposed in a post WW2 setting, this paper will apply it to a colonial context.

Prior to the First World War, the British-Indian military, a colonial institution, was charged with protecting British interests both within India and abroad. The British Indian Army, especially its Sikh and Gurkha regiments, fought in the Second Anglo-Afghan War (1878–1880), the Mahdist War (1881-1899), and the Boxer Rebellion in China (1899-1900). Furthermore, Indian soldiers played a pivotal role in the expansion of the British empire, with Indian forces being stationed in Egypt to help secure British control over the Suez Canal (1882) and Afghanistan (1880).

During all three Anglo-Afghan wars of 1839–42, 1878–80, and 1919 respectively, the British-Indian army played a vital role in the campaigns, especially during the bloodiest war, the 2nd Anglo Afghan War, where they served as the primary force in combat operations and provided logistical support. Soldiers of the Gurkha and Sikh regiments were the backbone of the British-Indian army during the Afghan Campaigns.

During these periods of the Anglo-Egyptian and the 2nd Anglo-Afghan Wars, the British-Indian military was an extremely professional force. This was demonstrated through its disciplined organisation and the high levels of experience in both its officer ranks and enlisted ranks. During the Anglo-Egyptian War, the British-Indian force demonstrated its military might through their professionalism.

This paper categorises professionalism under the following four points, in no particular order: Competence, Loyalty, High Ethical Standards and Discipline. The British-Indian force of the Anglo-Egyptian War was a well trained force. The force was made up of veterans of the Second Anglo-Afghan War and the Third Anglo-Burmese War. Following the sepoy mutiny of 1857, the British military was reformed in order to prevent future insurrections. This resulted in soldiers having greater technical skills, resulting in their competency improving with both their weapons and their collaboration. Soldiers were trained to and expected to meet far higher standards, and were paid better. The matter of high pay lends itself well to the next point, loyalty. There were two main factors that resulted in the complete loyalty of Indian troops, financial incentives and the martial races being applied to military recruitment. After the Sepoy Mutiny of 1857, Indian soldiers started receiving competitive pay and benefits. Pay not only served as a motivator but also as a way of securing the loyalty of Indian troops, ensuring that they were financially invested in the success.

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The British-Indian military of this time was shaped by the martial races theory, a colonial doctrine that categorized all castes as belonging to one of two categories. The 'martial' category, namely Sikhs, Gurkhas, Pathans, and Rajputs, as they were believed to be more suited for military service due to their physical strength, perceived loyalty to the British, and their levels of discipline. They also recruited soldiers from this category with less access to education, as they were believed to be easier to control. The other category was the 'non martial' category, which comprised Marathis and Gujuratis, among others. This greatly affected military recruitment methods, which focused on mainly recruiting Indian soldiers of the 'martial races'. This focus of recruitment had significant implications for the loyalty of soldiers in all conflicts, including the Anglo-Egyptian War of 1882. The classification embedded a sense of pride and identity within the martial races, which in turn fostered a deep sense of loyalty to the British military. In the context of the Anglo-Egyptian War of 1882, this loyalty was demonstrated in the willingness of the Indian soldiers to fight for British interests in Egypt. Their loyalty was further reinforced by the notion that they were the protectors of the Empire, an elite group, a concept embedded in them through the British recruitment strategies and the martial races theory.

The officers and soldiers of the British-Indian army also had extremely high ethical standards. In the officer class, this was shaped by British colonial values and upbringing, and it played a significant role in maintaining discipline and order within the army. They were trained to lead by example, as their leadership would set the bar for the performance of their troops. This was demonstrated in the Anglo-Egyptian War of 1882 by commanders such as General Sir Gerald Graham, who was known for his ethical conduct toward prisoners and personally leading his men into battle. Another example of high ethical standards was the standards of Field Marshal Garnet Joseph Wolseley, who maintained strict orders against looting and unnecessary destruction of Cairo and neighbouring cities. Finally, discipline was exhibited by both officers and soldiers of the British-Indian force. There was a strict chain of command, with officers being directly responsible for the actions of their soldiers. In the specific example of the Anglo-Egyptian War, Sir Garnet Woseley was known for maintaining a force known as the 'Wolseley Ring', a group of officers he entrusted with the responsibility of, among others, maintaining discipline and order within the force. The soldiers of the British-Indian army were part of an army wherein discipline was enforced through strict training, clear orders, and punishment for misconduct. Soldiers demonstrated this discipline by maintaining strict battlefield discipline, remaining calm and in formation under fire. The strict discipline of the British-Indian army was one of the key reasons that they were able to defeat a force that severely outnumbered them. Therefore, during this period, the British-Indian army was an extremely professional force, exhibiting discipline, high ethical standards, loyalty, and competence.

This concurs with Janowitz's theory that prior to the First World War, the British-Indian military was mainly concerned with traditional warfare; serving the interests of the British empire in the conquest for new territory and the defense of its colonial possessions. These campaigns and many more like them also highlighted the reliance of the British empire on Indian manpower to maintain control over its far-reaching colonial possessions. This period marked the first phase of Janowitz's theory, wherein a military is solely focused on traditional colonial warfare .

From the beginning of the first world war to when India gained her independence on 15th August 1947, the British-Indian military transformed significantly. Originally established as a force to defend the interests of the British Empire, it began to perform roles that are traditionally associated with internal governance organisations. While it still fought in foreign theatres, it was also tasked with maintaining stability within the British-Indian Empire. This was crucial due to increased demand for self-rule within India.

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In the years following the First World War, the Indian Military was mainly involved in suppressing discontent with the British administration. Within the military, reactions to this were mixed. The reactions to the role of the military as a constabulary force varied based on their backgrounds and positions. Many Indian soldiers felt tension between their sense of duty to the British and the nationalistic sentiments that were beginning to grow within the Indian population. Indian officers within the military experienced similar conflict. Nonetheless, a combination of their professionalism and fear of punishment kept soldiers from openly defying orders. The reformation of the military following the 1857 mutiny was another key factor in the maintenance of order and discipline within the British-Indian army, as recruitment policies ensured that soldiers believed they were different from the rest of the Indian community. For British officers though, particularly the senior officers, this role as a constabulary force was viewed as a necessary part of maintaining control. While some British officers were uncomfortable with the methods employed during incidents such as the Jallianwala Bagh Massacre, they were extremely unlikely to refuse orders as a result of their training. As the 1930s progressed, the military's role as a constabulary force was questioned by both the Indian public and some members within the military. The Indian army saw growing unrest, particularly with the harshness of British responses to civil disobedience. This unrest was reflected in events such as the 1946 Royal Indian Navy Mutiny.

During this period, the army was frequently deployed to quell protests, strikes, and public unrest. Their methods often involved violent suppression, using live ammunition, lethal weapons, and in extreme cases, machine guns to disperse crowds gathered to protest British rule.

However, this was not the norm, rather the exception. The military's role was akin to that of a police force, wherein they were present to intimidate and suppress crowds, and to engage in combat when deemed necessary by superiors. Examples of this were the Salt March (1930) and Non-Cooperation Movement. Although the military did not engage in much direct combat in either of these cases, it was used to maintain order and conduct arrests, sometimes through violent confrontations. These roles are ones typically performed by internal governance organisations such as the police. This establishes that in the years following the First World War to the beginning of the Second World War (1919-1939), the Indian Military played the role of a constabulary force to maintain order within India.

While the British-Indian Military played the role of a constabulary force from 1919-1939, it also was a traditional combat force, playing the role that it was established to do, which was to protect and expand British colonial interests. The British-Indian military saw its primary role as safeguarding British interests overseas and projecting British power across the globe. Although its effort was equally divided, the soldiers were not trained to serve as a constabulary force or act as policemen; instead, they were trained specifically for external combat. While many soldiers, especially those of Indian descent, felt conflicted about their role as a constabulary force within India, the soldiers and officers of the British-Indian military viewed deployment as an external force as an obligation. Between the start of World War 1 and India's independence, the army participated in numerous campaigns that were part of the broader British imperial strategy. For the soldiers, especially those of the martial races, military service was often seen as an honorable means of gaining recognition and respect. The British-Indian military fought alongside British forces in Europe, Africa, and the Middle East, including in key battles such as the battle in Mesopotamia during World War I and in North Africa during World War II. During these campaigns, soldiers of the British-Indian army were awarded scores of medals for valour and gallantry. In addition, they remained a professional force, demonstrating high levels of competence, ethical standards, loyalty, and discipline. This professionalism was vital in maintaining the effectiveness of the military during periods of pressure, such as both the world wars and subsequent internal unrest within India. This capacity to be effective during periods of stress combined with the professionalism of the military ensured the British-Indian military remained largely unaffected by the rising nationalist movements of the 1920s and 1930s.

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This shows that from 1919-1939, the British-Indian military served a dual role of a constabulary force and a traditional combat force. These campaigns also demonstrated the level of British reliance on the British-Indian military on both the defence of its territories and on its ability to maintain order within India. This period marked the second phase of Janowitz's theory, wherein a military is focused both on constabulary force like engagements and on being a traditional combat force. Similar to British-India, the French military in Algeria took on both constabulary and combat roles, however they placed greater emphasis on direct control through the military by way of violent suppression. The French used their military as a key tool for maintaining French interests in Algeria, through extremely violent methods. The key difference was the methods used by the French and the British as a constabulary force. The French military employed a far more violent approach to assert colonial dominance, through a process of subjugation. While the French military served as a constabulary force, its primary role was that of a traditional combat force, mainly fighting against rival European powers in an attempt to gain or take back territory. This was extremely similar to the way the military was utilised by the British in India, enforcing colonial authority. The Belgian military in the Congo was also deployed with a dual role of maintaining order and defending the country against neighbouring territories, however with far less emphasis on traditional combat in the way British forces or French forces were. While there were occasional skirmishes, the Belgian military never engaged in full, traditional combat. Instead, their main task in the Congo was suppressing internal conflict.

In contrast, the British-Indian military's almost equal role in both large scale military operations and internal peacekeeping was unique amongst colonial militaries, with the French military playing a more traditional role and with the Belgian military playing the role of a purely constabulary force. This was due to many factors, including the size and diversity of India, the rise of nationalistic movements, and the number of global military engagements the British-Indian military was called to fight in. Due to India being significantly larger and full of extremely diverse populations as compared to the Congo and Algeria, internal stability was a major issue for the British. The police was incapable of handling uprisings, demonstrations, and protests, therefore there was a far greater need for the military to play the role of a constabulary force. In addition, the rise of nationalistic movements also meant that the military was required to suppress them, further increasing the responsibilities of the military. Lastly, India and Indian troops were heavily involved in large scale military operations such as the two World Wars. The need for Indian soldiers throughout the world required the Indian military to take on a dual role of a constabulary force and a traditional combat force.

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During this period, the British-Indian military was going through a period of 'Indianisation'. This involved the transfer of administrative and leadership roles from the British to Indian officers. During this period, racial and social prejudices shaped the military's recruitment and training policies. The martial races theory was one of these prejudices. While the martial races theory remained influential, it was not nearly as influential as it was in the 19th century. The necessities of war in the First World War meant that a significant number of soldiers from non-martial races, mainly Bengalis and South Indians were inducted into the military. However, they mainly served labor, support, and auxiliary positions. However, by the time the Second World War rolled around, there were significant labour shortages, resulting in even further relaxation of the martial races principle — many soldiers belonging to the non-martial communities were combat troops. It is important to note that this relaxation was entirely due to necessity — from 1920-1938, the martial races principle was followed due to there being no shortage of labour. The process of 'Indianisation' and the gradual relaxation of the martial races theory in British recruitment policies played a vital role in the evolution of the Indian military from the British-Indian one. It allowed Indian soldiers to gain experience in leadership, administration, and strategic planning. This transition from an all British officer force to a more balanced one was crucial in preparing the Indian officer corps for independence as it ensured that India had trained leadership capable of maintaining the high standards of the military. The 'Indianisation' of the British-Indian military laid down the foundation for a capable independent Indian military, and was a key factor in the success of the Indian military in Kashmir, Hyderabad, and Junagadh. The incorporation of the non-martial races into the British-Indian military challenged the colonial mindset by demonstrating that effectiveness in battle was not due to race or ethnicity, but instead dictated by training, discipline, and strategy. This shift ensured the military became more representative of the different ethnicities within India, nonetheless, Sikhs, Gurkhas, and Jats continued to play the major role in the armed forces. In addition, the experience given to both Indian officers and soldiers in both the world wars, both on the fighting front and the administrative front was invaluable to the success of the independent Indian military.

After the independence of India on August 15th, 1947, the British-Indian military was formally divided into the Pakistan Armed Forces and the Indian Armed Forces. In the years following partition, the Indian military primarily played the role of a constabulary force, as shown through both the integration of the princely states and through the role that the Indian Military played in maintaining order due to the disorganisation of the Indian civil government, especially in once disputed territories such as Junagadh and Kashmir.

In one case, in the Indo-Pakistani war of 1947–1948, the Indian military played the role of a traditional combat force, defending the nation's borders. This challenges Janowitz's theory, as it states that a military of a democratic state will evolve into a purely constabulary force. Through this, the post-independence Indian military described its capacity for both traditional operations and as a constabulary force. This dual role that the military played highlights the complex nature of India's post independence security. This dual role also shows how critical the Indian military was to the formation of India as a state, as it helped not only to integrate the princely states, but also in fighting a defensive war for India's territory.

However, this period does not completely eradicate the relevance of Janowitz's theory. His theory is based on a world wherein all states are democratic ones, and states that only if all states are democratic, only then the military will take on the role of a purely constabulary force. At this stage, it is important to note that the Kashmir War of 1947, and all wars fought by India from independence to the present day (discounting the UN peacekeeping missions and the Sri Lankan LTTE engagement, which would be non-existent in the 'ideal world' of Janowitz) were defensive ones. This leads this paper to believe that in the 'ideal world' that Janowitz describes, the Indian Army would take on the role of a purely constabulary force with no external engagements.

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Much research has been conducted into the evolution of African societies in transition from colonialism and their civil-military relations in a post-colonial context. This paper will now compare the differences and similarities between Nigerian civil military relations and British-Indian civil military relations in a transitional context and examine the reasons for these. During British colonial rule, the British-Indian Army was highly organized, ethnically segregated, and managed through British command with Indian soldiers predominantly occupying lower ranks. India became a critical source of manpower for Britain. A strict organisational structure was in place in order to maintain British control over the military. After independence in 1947, India inherited a professional military, able to get the upper hand in managing civil military relations. The colonial military system in Nigeria however, was far less centralised and was fragmented. This was due to different administrative strategies employed by the British, and the challenges posed by Nigeria's vast geographical expanse. The British utilized a combination of local militias and British troops to maintain control. There was no formal 'British-Nigerian' military, and British military presence in Nigeria was smaller, with the number of Nigerians and British being roughly similar. The British also relied on regional forces such as the Royal West African Frontier to maintain order and ensure internal stability, leaving the standing British army free to perform the role of a traditional combat force. While Nigerians were recruited to serve in the military, it was always in a subordinate role, often performing menial jobs such as latrine cleaning. The 'Indianisation' that happened to the British-Indian Army never happened with the Nigerian force, which resulted in Nigeria inheriting a weak and ineffective military. In addition, the values of professionalism were never embedded into the Nigerian force. This was a key reason why Nigeria's transition from colonial rule to independence in 1960 was fraught with instability, ethnic division, and political fragmentation. The military quickly got involved in politics, resulting in the first military coup d'état only six years later. Meanwhile, the Indian military after independence came under direct control of civilian leaders, having far less power than other postcolonial militaries of this time, such as Pakistan (coup d'état in 1958), Egypt (1952), Burma (1962), and Ghana (1966). These examples highlight the uniqueness of the Indian military force following independence in 1947. The reasons behind the differences in the civil military relations between India and other postcolonial nations can be traced to various factors, including India's relatively stable political landscape, the control of the civilian government and its commitment to maintaining an apolitical military, and the professionalism and experience of the Indian military. Other nations did not have these advantages, which resulted in them being unable to establish balance between the civilian authority and military influence. The lack of a strong, committed government in these nations allowed the military to seize power, hindering both the progress and reputation of that nation.

Following the Second World War, regiments that were non-martial races were disbanded. Prior to and during the war, the Indian National Congress, a predominantly Hindu organization, opposed the martial races recruitment policy. They criticised the policy as restrictive and discriminatory, and pressed for the opening of military opportunity for Indians of all backgrounds. Following Indian independence, the Indian government in February 1949 abolished the official application of martial race principles with regard to military recruitment. Nonetheless, it continued to be applied in both formal and informal contexts. To this day, the backbone of the Indian Army is mainly Sikhs, Dogras, Jats, and Rajputs. These ethnic groups happen to be the same as the ones identified by the British as 'Martial Races.' This demonstrates that although the Indian government officially abolished the martial race principle, people from these ethnic groups are still more inclined to join the military.

Understanding the historical context and the evolution of the Indian Military is fundamental to understanding the role of the Indian Army in the integration of the Princely States into India and the scale of which these operations contributed to the formation of India as a state. This is due to the Indian Army taking on the role of a constabulary force within India during the years following partition.

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CASE STUDIES — THE FIRST KASHMIR WAR, OPERATION POLO, AND THE MILITARY TAKEOVER OF JUNAGADH

Case Study 1 — The First Kashmir War (1947-1948)

The First Kashmir War is one of the most prominent examples of the Indian Army's role in the integration of the princely states and the formation of India as a state. The Indian Army's intervention to the invasion of Kashmir by tribal militias was immediate and critical to ensuring the internal security of the state, and by extension, that of the nation. This was because invasion by tribal militias supported by Pakistan threatened the Kashmir's sovereignty and could have led to its annexation by Pakistan. The rapid mobilisation of the Indian army halted the advance of tribal militias, ensuring that the strategically important region remained under India's control. This was vital for the India's security, especially given Kashmir's geographical significance and its proximity to Pakistan and China.

Without this action, Kashmir would have fallen under Pakistani control, which would have had significant implications for both India's territorial integrity and its security. If Kashmir were to fall under Pakistan's control, it would alter the balance of power in the region, giving Pakistan strategic advantages in controlling both military routes and access to other parts of India. It would also expose India's northern borders to military threats from both Pakistan and China. Loss of the Kashmir region would have jeopardized India's control over vital water resources, especially the Indus Water System, as Pakistan would see no need to sign the the Indus Water Treaty of 1960 due to the majority of the system being in their hands.

The Kashmir War was also a test for India to see if the nation could protect its territorial integrity. Through the successful Kashmir campaign mentioned earlier, India showed that she could defend herself. India's prompt military response exhibited the country's capability for quick and decisive action. The Indian government moved swiftly to send military reinforcements in order to push back invaders and secure critical regions, especially the Kashmir Valley. This was a demonstration of India's military capability and organizational strength, which showed both the undecided princely states and to the Indian population that the Indian Central Government had the power to govern effectively and protect its territories to maintain stability. Moreover, India's ability to seek international intervention, as it did by requesting the United Nations to intervene, while at the same time maintaining a strong military presence, demonstrated its ability to seek both military and diplomatic avenues effectively. These factors strengthened both India's international standing and its civilian government's standing with Indian citizens as India was able to demonstrate that she was not simply a newly freed colony, but a nation capable of protecting itself and its territorial integrity.

Finally, according to scholars such as P.R. Chari and Anit Mukherjee, while military commanders played an vital role in the operational and strategic execution of military tasks, final decisions regarding military operations and diplomacy rested in the hands of the civilian leadership. Chari states that "...that the political culture developed within India has crystallised civil-military relations within a definite pattern."

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This became evident during the First Kashmir War of 1947-48. Building on research done by Chari and Mukherjee, this paper believes that the pattern of civil military relations in India (as argued by Chari and Mukherjee) reflects the prioritization of civilian control over the military. While military commanders played a crucial role in both strategic and operational details, areas which civilian leaders lacked expertise, the ultimate decisions always lay in the hands of civilian leaders. During the Kashmir War, the final decisions were always made by Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru, Deputy Prime Minister Vallabhbhai Patel, and VP Menon.

Examples of these decisions include the request for international intervention (considered by both Dinkar P. Srivastava [find pg number, left library before realising and Rathnam Indurthy [find pg number, left library before realising] in their respective books as the most significant decision taken during the Kashmir War) and the deployment of forces.

According to both Srivastava and Indurthy, the request for international intervention was not only sought to bring a ceasefire but also a way to internationalize the Kashmir issue, placing it under global scrutiny and paving the way for future negotiations. This was despite the military's preference for continued engagement. The decision to deploy forces was also a decision taken by civilian leadership, as it was taken by Nehru and Patel on the advice of Lord Mountbatten in his role as Governor-General of India and VP Menon. The decision to deploy troops in Kashmir was done only after the Maharaja had signed the instrument of accession, which was taken against the advice of senior military leaders.

Nevertheless, military leaders such as Major General Thimayya played major roles in the strategic execution of operations. The above mentioned factors all contributed to illustrate India's commitment to a civilian-led, democratic environment, further increasing India's reputation on the global stage.

Overall, the Kashmir War was more than a military conflict, instead, it was a significant period in the formation of India as a state. It shaped the course of Indian and international history and placed India on the world stage by proving both its democratic capabilities and its military might.

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Case Study 2 — Operation Polo (Hyderabad)

During Operation Polo in Hyderabad, the military was not the state itself, but rather a tool of the state used to integrate the princely states and to contribute to India's formation as a state. It was an example of the Indian military acting as a constabulary force in accordance with Janowitz's theory, which resulted in the annexation of the princely state of Hyderabad into India. By late 1948, almost all the 500+ princely states had acceded to either India or Pakistan. However, Hyderabad was holding out, refusing to accede to either nation. Hyderabad, being in the centre of the country, and being in the middle of a communist rebellion, was vital to Indian strategic interests. Vallabhbhai Patel, the Deputy Prime Minister, stated that 'if Hyderabad was not integrated, it would become a cancer in the belly of India.' In the situation where Hyderabad would remain independent, then India would exist with a state with a differing ideology within itself. This is due to the communist rebellion (Telangana Rebellion) that was taking place at that time in Hyderabad, which was likely to have been successful without the affects of the Indian military's 'police action', due to the peasants of Hyderabad's views on communism being extremely positive, with positive changes such as the abolition of forced labour, illegal eviction, and the return of illegally seized lands all taking place. The Communists were even able to defeat the Arya Samaj (a monotheistic Indian Hindu reform movement), something even the Congress was unable to do. With diplomatic efforts failing, Patel and Prime Minister Nehru authorised military intervention. It is important to note that the military intervened on orders of the civilian government. Although operational details of the operation were planned by military commanders, the strategic direction of the military was provided by Patel and Nehru. The Indian military's involvement in Operation Polo reflected the civil-military relations expected of them at the time. The civilian control over military actions set a precedent for future operations, including the Second Kashmir War and the Indo-Sino War of 1962.

Operation Polo was an example of the military functioning not as a traditional force, but as a constabulary force. Operation Polo was dubbed as a 'police action' by the Indian military. During this conflict, the military moved away from the role it had played in Kashmir — that of a traditional fighting force. The military's role in Hyderabad was a combination of utilising military force to serve the purpose of political integration.

In a world where India existed without Hyderabad, India would not be a fully formed state due to constant internal conflict and violence. As such, the Indian military, through its swift and uncompromising action, played a major role in the formation of India as a state by the integration of Hyderabad into the Indian union.

Finally, civil military relations during Operation Polo...

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Case Study 3 — Military takeover of Junagadh

An additional example of how military intervention was used to integrate the princely states into India and how it contributed to the formation of India as a state is the case of Junagadh. At the time, Junagadh had a majority Hindu population (~85%) and a Muslim Nawab (ruler). Due to Junagadh being in close proximity to the present day Indo-Pakistan border, it had the potential to accede to either nation, unlike Hyderabad. Following partition, the Nawab acceded to Pakistan, a decision that led to unrest, with large Hindu segments of the population opposing the acceding to Pakistan, calling for integration with India. Initially, the Indian government attempted to oppose the unrest through diplomatic means, with Patel negotiating with the Nawab to reconsider his decision. Following these discussions, he fled to Pakistan in September 1947, further complicating the situation. With Pakistan claiming Junagadh to be their own but the people of Junagadh wanting to accede to India, Patel and Nehru took military action before the situation spiralled out of control, in order to both build the nation and prevent further instability. While military action was not the only pathway left to the Indian government, it was done to prevent Pakistan from forcefully taking over Junagadh, which would have led to another war similar to Kashmir, with no obvious victory for Indian forces. As always, the senior administrative members of the Indian government had the final decision on whether to take or not to take military action and planned the strategic details, with officers of the military planning the operational details. This contributed further to enhancing India's reputation of a democratic state on the world stage.

The Indian army played the role of a purely constabulary force during its occupation of Junagadh. The army did not engage in any combat, and was there to pass a message to Pakistan that Junagadh belonged to India. After they advanced into Junagadh with little resistance, the Indian army occupied strategic locations to assert control and ensure the law and order in the state. Indian forces also occupied key places like the Junagadh airport and key towns such as Junagadh city, Keshod and Mangrol to ensure that the region was under Indian control. This helped restore order and ensure that the people could voice their desire for integration with India without fear of reprisals from the Nawab's forces.

Following the successful military action and after assurances that the people could voice their desire for integration with India without fear of reprisals, the Indian government called for a plebiscite to determine the political future of Junagadh. The plebiscite was held under the supervision of the Indian government, and >90% of the population voted in favor of joining India. While there were doubts raised about the transparency of the plebiscite, they were mainly from pro-Muslim factions of the community, with the majority of the population being content with the results. This confirmed that the military intervention had not only restored order but had also led to a democratic process that reflected the people's opinion on their future.

The Indian military's role in the military takeover of Junagadh contributed to the formation of India as a state in many ways. It showcased India's resolution to not tolerate any areas becoming an area of conflict, which asserted India's sovereignty in the minds of the Indian population. In addition, the integration of Junagadh established that India could use both military force and diplomatically manage the integration of princely states and strengthened the democratic commitment that India maintained, laying the foundation for a unified nation. This aligned with India's principles of non-aggression and peaceful resolution whenever possible of that period.

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GENERALISATIONS FROM THE CASE STUDIES — INDIA'S CIVIL MILITARY RELATIONS, THE ROLE OF THE MILITARY IN THE INTEGRATING OF THE PRINCELY STATES, AND ITS IMPACT ON INDIA'S FORMATION.

Upon close examination of the case studies, this paper draws the following generalizations about India and its military:

1. The military was ultimately under the control of civilian leadership, and despite the need for military force, civilian leaders to the best of their efforts combined both military intervention with democratic and diplomatic process.
2. The use of military force was paramount in securing India's territorial integrity and ensuring national security, and illustrate how military intervention, though typically a last resort, was sometimes necessary to ensure the stability of the Indian state.

Firstly, in all three case studies, the military was ultimately under the control of civilian leadership and despite the need for military force, civilian leaders, to the best of their efforts, combined military intervention with the democratic process. This was demonstrated during the plebiscite in Junagadh, resulting in the imposition of the will of the people. In Hyderabad and Kashmir, this was demonstrated through the numerous diplomatic attempts that were made by Patel and Nehru in an effort to resolve the issues through peaceful means. In Hyderabad, military action was taken only after it was clear that the region's 'independent status' would destroy the stability of the greater southern Indian region, and in Kashmir, military action was only taken following the occupation of Kashmir by Pakistani backed militias.

Secondly, the use of military force was paramount in securing India's territorial integrity and ensuring national security, and illustrate how military intervention, though typically a last resort, was sometimes necessary to ensure the stability of the Indian state. In the case of Kashmir, military force was critical in defending the region against the Pakistani-backed invasion, which threatened not only Kashmir's independence, but the territorial integrity and stability of the Indian state. Although India did pursue diplomatic channels to resolve this war, it was the initial military force that protected Kashmir, and by extension, the entire Indian state. Note that this military force was a last resort, as all attempts at diplomacy had failed, and Pakistani insurgents had occupied Kashmir territory. If Kashmir had been taken in the Pakistani-backed invasion, nothing would have stopped the tribal militias from advancing further into India. Bolstered by their success, their leaders may have decided to push deeper into Indian territory, and while they may not have permanently occupied these territories, it would cause the people to question the effectiveness of the Indian military, and by extension, the Indian government.

If the Hyderabad state was not integrated into India, as mentioned earlier, Hyderabad, being a communist state, would have had a different ideology than the Indian one. This meant that if it was not integrated, a great number of resources would need to be expended in order to maintain internal stability within the region, with no guarantee of them working. As such, the military operation that took place to annex Hyderabad was paramount in securing India's territorial integrity and ensuring national security, although it was a last resort.

In Junagadh, while the military did not engage in combat, their initial intervention was vital in ensuring that Pakistan did not send military force to back up its claims that Junagadh belonged to them. In the case that Pakistan had sent military force in, India would have been forced to intervene due to the population being majority Hindu. The resulting war would have both destabilised India's territorial integrity and would have resulted in a long, drawn out conflict similar to Kashmir, taking away vital resources from other parts of the country.

As such, the use of military force was paramount in securing India's territorial integrity and ensuring national security.

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CONCLUSION

As mentioned in the introduction of this paper, the Indian army, having evolved from a force focused on traditional warfare to a constabulary force, was instrumental in the integration of the princely states and the formation of India as a state. As shown in the case studies, due to having a strong military in their back pocket, the Indian civilian government was able to integrate Junagadh, Kashmir, and Hyderabad into the Indian union. Due to the integration of these states into the Indian military, India became fully formed as a state. Supposing that Kashmir was not integrated, Kashmir would have fallen under Pakistani control, having significant implications for both India's territorial integrity and its security.

In the case that Hyderabad was not integrated, India would not be a fully formed state due to the constant internal conflict and violence that would have taken place.

Finally, if Junagadh was not integrated, Pakistan would have forcefully taken over Junagadh, resulting in a war similar to Kashmir.

From the three cases studies, it is clear that:

- 1) The military was ultimately under the control of civilian leadership, and despite the need for military force, civilian leaders to the best of their efforts combined both military intervention with democratic and diplomatic process.
- 2) The use of military force was paramount in securing India's territorial integrity and ensuring national security, and illustrate how military intervention, though typically a last resort, was sometimes necessary to ensure the stability of the Indian state.

Although many argue that the Indian military did not have a major role in India's formation as a state due to the civilian government's primacy over the military, without the Indian military, India's territorial integrity and sovereignty would have been significantly compromised. Whilst civilian leadership such as Nehru and Patel were vital in both the integration of the princely states and the formation of India, the military's contribution in these two areas was indispensable, and without it, India might have faced far greater challenges than what it did face during its early years.

This has major implications for modern-day India, as it demonstrates the importance of a balanced relationship between civilian leadership and the military. In addition, the role of the military in securing and maintaining India's territorial integrity highlights the need for coordination between the civilian government and the armed forces, particularly while addressing national security concerns. The examples of Kashmir, Hyderabad, and Junagadh indicate that while diplomacy and democratic processes should always be the priority, military intervention may become necessary.

In the present day, India's territorial disputes with both Pakistan and China continue to tread the fine line between diplomacy and military intervention. The lessons learned from operations in India's formative years continue to influence modern day military strategy, as while the country remains committed to diplomatic measures, India continues to maintain a strong military capable of responding to any threat, whether internal or external.



GODS, MORTALS AND MISOGYNY: UNVEILING GENDER DYNAMICS IN CLASSICAL GREEK MYTHS

WRITTEN BY MYSHA SHANGARI



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GODS, MORTALS AND MISOGYNY: UNVEILING GENDER DYNAMICS IN CLASSICAL GREEK MYTHS

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RESEARCH QUESTION

To what extent do the differences in divine intervention for men and women in Greek mythology reveal Greek cultural attitudes towards women during the classical period?

I. INTRODUCTION

In the age of artificial intelligence and space exploration, ancient Greek mythology might seem like a relic of the past. Yet, these timeless tales continue to captivate our imagination and offer profound insights into timeless human nature and societal structures. A recurring motif within these myths is the intervention of gods and goddesses in the lives of mortals. This literature paper examines existing scholarship research on divine intervention in Greek mythology, focusing specifically on how such interventions differ for male and female mortals and what these differences reveal about Greek cultural attitudes towards women during the Classical period. Furthermore, how this goes on to suggest the normalised manhandling of women stemmed from the norms and attitudes showcased in the myths passed down in society.

The study of divine intervention in Greek mythology reveals a complex interplay between patriarchal power structures and the portrayal of women. Scholars have examined how myths served to legitimize and reinforce societal attitudes towards women, often depicting them with both reverence and contempt. While some myths portray marriage and motherhood as desirable conditions for women, others highlight their victimization and lack of agency. The portrayal of rape in myths, for instance, often emphasizes women's powerlessness and loss of identity without men^{1 2}. Research has also explored key themes such as confinement and the dowry system, which underscore the limited freedom of Greek women as reflected in mythological narratives³. Some scholars have noted that even when women are portrayed as heroes in myths, their stories often culminate in downfall or death, reinforcing patriarchal norms⁴. The role of divine intervention in these myths has been examined as a means of explaining mortal conflicts and shaping historical narratives, with gods' favors for certain individuals impacting events like the Trojan War⁵. Overall, the study of divine intervention in Greek

mythology provides insight into the complex relationship between gender, power, and societal values in ancient Greek culture. While existing scholarship provides valuable insights into divine interventions and gender roles, several gaps remain. Further research is needed to explore the circumstances and roles of marginalized women in these myths and the differences between intervention for male and female mortals, comparing them to their interventions with female gods and male gods respectively. In several pieces of research, only one myth is examined or only one gender, mortal or god is taken into account. By comparing and contrasting all of them at the same time, while using multiple different evidence of myths, I believe we are able to get a more detailed and revealing answer to the extent of how Greek myths altered societal norms. Additionally, a more nuanced understanding of agency and motivations of male and female deities is warranted, moving beyond simplistic portrayals of myths that reinforce them as either enforcers or victims of the patriarchy.

¹ Edu, "Examples of Burdens Borne by Women in Greek Mythology - World History Edu."

² Meehan, "Containing the Kalon Kakon: The Portrayal of Women in Ancient Greek Mythology."

³ Strauss, "God, the King, and Power in Ephesians: An Exegetical-Theological Study."

⁴ Athena, "5 Times Deities Shook up Legends - Paleothea."

⁵ Edu, "Major Challenges Women Faced in Greek Mythology."

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I will attempt to answer the research question by examining the differences between the extent and expectations in divine intervention between female and male gods, and female and male mortals. To reveal extreme similarities and differences from which we can infer how these myths influenced Greek cultural attitudes towards women during the classical period. To answer the research question, I have split my research into four distinct criterias. Male gods and their interactions with male mortals, as well as their interactions with female mortals. Female gods and their interactions with female mortals, as well as male mortals. I believe this method cross examines all aspects deeply and is a more thorough investigation of the mythologies compared to other studies. By comparing at least ten different myths in each section I am going to point out key differences in circumstances, expectations and ideologies in all areas of Greek mythology. By listing them all out and then finding the exact circumstance and explanation for behaviour for each and every myth, I gain a deeper understanding of the true meaning the myth was trying to convey and how society may have interpreted these myths during the classical period.

The significance of this question is not to be underestimated as these myths have stood the test of time, and have been passed down through generations of warriors for a reason. By understanding and comparing the different interactions between men and women, and gods and goddesses, we can infer further details about women's life in Greece and how these myths might have influenced or perpetuated societal ideology and standards. The simple resilience of these norms suggests that they have been a crucial part of Greek and Western culture as these timeless themes hold symbolic depth, which is why they continue to shape language, literature, art, and societal values across generations, serving as foundational narratives that inform both individual identity and collective heritage in the Western world.

II. FEMALE GODS I FEMALE MORTALS

Greek myths frequently depict goddesses exercising formidable influence, delivering severe punishments to mortals as a way to assert their dominance and highlight cultural fears surrounding female authority. In the multiple myths of Hera and Alcemna, Io, Semele, Hercules, Athena and Arachne, Aphrodite and Psyche, Helen, Atalanta, Demeter and Persephone, Medusa and Athena, Artemis and Callisto. These tales were widespread with fear and caution underlining the power of female gods, and the malice that runs through them if you dare defy their order. The disagreeable punishments given to female mortals in most cases go to extreme lengths that would be considered unnecessary, showcasing anxiety around female power.

GODS, MORTALS AND MISOGYNY: UNVEILING GENDER DYNAMICS IN CLASSICAL GREEK MYTHS

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To begin with the myths of Hera, Hera and Alcemna⁶. Alcemna was pregnant with Heracles after Zeus disguised himself as her husband. Hera became vengeful and delayed Alcemna's labour so Eurystheus could be born before Heracles. Again, with Io, who was a priestess of Hera pursued by Zeus. Hera turned her into a cow to prevent Zeus from forming relations with Io⁷. Reiterated once more, Semele was a mortal lover of Zeus who was pregnant with Dionysus. Hera tricked Semele into asking Zeus to reveal his true form, yet anyone who saw a god's true form would die instantly from the force of power. To prove his love for Semele⁸, Zeus had to reveal his true form to her knowing that it would kill her. Lastly with Hera and Heracles, Hera was jealous of baby Heracles and sent serpents to kill him as an infant and drove him to madness later on in his life by causing him to kill his own family. There are three main patterns that should be spotted from the myths above. Firstly that at no point in time were the women completely at fault throughout the story, there was always a main man- almost all of the time Zeus- lusting them to their lure invoking a goddess wrath in the means of a punishment. Their only fault was falling in love with the one man who could never love them back.

The second noteworthy pattern is the reaction of the female god to the female mortal portrayed in these myths. Instead of questioning or punishing the male god or mortal who is almost one hundred percent of the cases primarily at fault, they turn to their own kind, female mortals as the root cause of the problem. This results in a physical or mental disfigurement on the mortal women which means the women suffer immense pain and loss, when it usually should not be theirs in the first place. The third pattern would be the entire irony of the situation and what that translates to in real life. The entirety of these myths could be summed up to Zeus cheating on Hera multiple times and yet the poor mortal woman gets punished harshly as if it were entirely her fault. These myths being perpetuated could subconsciously reinforce society's standards that if a man cheats on a woman it could be forgiven easily, as it is so easy to fall to charms as a man. Yet if a woman does so just once, there are incredible repercussions and consequences, and society would forget there was even another man in the picture with whom she cheated with. The blame would fall entirely on her as she should uphold her chastity and never give in to such whims, until marriage, which she is not allowed to choose either and is instead chosen by her father or brother.

The second most repeated goddess who comes up in divine interventions between female gods and female mortals is Aphrodite. In the myth of Psyche and Aphrodite, Psyche's beauty caused mortals to neglect Aphrodite's worship. As Psyche and Cupid fell in love, Aphrodite imposes impossible tasks on Psyche in defense so that she would not marry Cupid. Once again, in the story Helen of Troy, Helen was the most beautiful woman in the world who married Menelaus of Sparta. Aphrodite then coyly asked Paris to give his opinion on who is the most beautiful girl in the world between Aphrodite, Athena and Hera, to soothe her fragile ego. Upon choosing Aphrodite she then orchestrated Helen and Paris, a prince of Troy to fall in love with each other as a prize, which began the stirrings of the Trojan war. Lastly, Aphrodite and Atalanta. Atalanta had been raised by hunters after being abandoned by her father, and when she finally came back to the kingdom there was a demand for her marriage. Their rule was whoever could outrun her would become her husband, and with the help of Aphrodite's golden apples to distract Atalanta during the race, Hippomenes gained her hand in marriage though it was technically cheating. The pattern reinforced again and again throughout these particular myths shows that women of the classical period should only care about their beauty and their husbands, and when faced with problems involving these two things their instinct is to react with jealousy and revenge instead of logic and kindness which would also be an appropriate reaction.

⁶ "Ovid (43 BC–17) - the Metamorphoses: Book 9."

⁷ "OVID, METAMORPHOSES 1 - Theoi Classical Texts Library."

⁸ "OVID, METAMORPHOSES 3 - Theoi Classical Texts Library."

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Through some additional myths we might gain some additional insight from, the myth of Athena and Arachne is a particularly interesting one. Arachne was a mortal who claimed she was a better weaver than Athena, who in response challenged her to a weaving contest. Surprisingly, Arachne wins the competition and in an enraged fit, Athena rips her winning tapestry to shreds. Angered, Arachne hangs herself but Athena brings her back a giant, terrifying spider so that she and her descendants can hang in punishment forever. It is worthwhile to note that Arachne by now has heard common myths spread by fellow villagers and would rather have killed herself than suffer the wrath at the hands of an unforgiving goddess. As well as the myths of Demeter and Persephone, though Persephone was considered a minor goddess in context to Demeter in this myth. Persephone, Demeter's daughter had lived peacefully before Hades abducted her with Zeus' consent, which made Demeter cause a famine while looking for her daughter. Additionally, Medusa and Athena have some contrasting perspectives. Medusa was a priestess of Athena but was raped by Poseidon in the Temple of Athena. Angry at the desecration of her temple, she cursed Medusa to become a gorgon. Many interpret this myth as Athena protecting Medusa as well, to save her from Poseidon. Lastly, Callisto who was also a devoted follower of Artemis. To seduce her, Zeus had to disguise himself as Artemis because she was so loyal to her. Throughout these myths again there's the pattern of men being in the wrong, yet women getting the blame.

As you can see, Hera and Aphrodite are the goddesses who are the most common throughout themes of vengeance in the myths with female gods and female mortals. This portrayal of female power through love and marriage which are their main domains is a mirror of what male mortals are most afraid of in society, and consequently portray in a viscous crude manner in myths. By normalising men cheating and women's main goal being their own beauty and jealousy, they perpetuate this stereotype onto classical society by restricting women's access to their own choices in marriage and community. There is also a recurring pattern of cheating in games and no matter what happened, the women are blamed again. Hippomenes cheating to win Atalanta's hand, and with Arachne winning yet Athena's temper bursting out, which is a surprising act coming from the goddess of logic and wisdom.

Throughout the myths of divine intervention consisting of interaction between female mortals and female gods, the main themes are ones of unfair punishments and the frequent urge to control female power. Though the women may undergo sexual assault or were wronged in a competitive environment and the men are to blame, the women are almost always blamed. These myths normalised this behaviour in classical society as men told women that these served as cautionary tales against higher power, and they took relief that the myths simply reinforced societal norms.

III. MALE GODS I FEMALE MORTALS

While analysing the unfortunate circumstances between male gods and female mortals, I will be highlighting the fact that more often than not, the interactions with mortal women often purely involve seduction, abduction and imposition, reflecting a cultural acceptance of male dominance and the objectification of women. The contrasting portrayal of divine-mortal relationships with male gods often engaging in fleeting, often coercive or forceful encounters that result in the suffering of mortal women, versus the rarity of sustained, mutually beneficial relationships involving female deities and mortal men reflects a cultural anxiety surrounding female power and sexual agency, reinforces the modern trope that powerful women cannot sustain relationships with lesser men as their desires are seen as inherently destabilizing. While examining these myths, a repeated pattern of carelessness and lack of respect will be discovered. This exposes the mentality of mortal and divine men and vulnerability of mortal women to divine power and the societal acceptance of male entitlement over female bodies and destinies. This is in relation to my broader argument about how myths set the stage for cultural norms, and we can begin to truly understand this by seeing the circumstances and poor treatment of women in these myths.

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Greek myths expose a dark pattern: male gods relentlessly chase mortal women as trophies, using cunning or cruelty when their desires are denied. The divine circumstances between male gods and female mortals can be broadly split between two disturbing categories. Firstly, in the myths prominently featuring Zeus in animal erotica such as Zeus and Io, Danae, Leda and the Swan, Europa and Semele. Secondly in the instances of rejection yet retribution, Cassandra and Apollo, Hades and Persephone, Media and Posideon, Daphne and Apollo, Poseidon and Amphitrite. Most of these stories are not widespread myths simply for the fact that they are accepted acts according to the society in the classical times. Alas, we must now examine them due to their manhandling and positiveness of women that are now not socially accepted. These myths will reveal the way male gods viewed women as a prize to win rather than a mortal soul, and the absurd lengths they would take to win the 'prize.'

Beginning with the myths surrounding obscene animalistic tendencies, Zeus is the main perpetrator in these stories, as the King of Thunder is known male manipulation. In the story of Zeus and Io, he turns her into a cow to hide Io⁹ from Hera, and forces her to wander aimlessly for many years. Zeus supposedly loved her, but did nothing to help. In another instance Zeus turns into a swan and rapes Leda¹⁰ in the form of a swan. Leda was the Queen of Sparta who later laid eggs which birthed the iconic Princess Clytemnestra and Helen of Troy. Similarly, Europa¹¹ was a princess admired by Zeus, so he transformed into a bull and abducted her. In the case of Semele, Zeus impregnated her but Hera found out, ensuring that Zeus revealed his true godly form to her which is blinding light to humans, therefore killing her instantly on the spot. Again, these fatal flings never lasted long. Danae was imprisoned by her father to prevent her from fulfilling a prophecy, and Zeus rapes her in the form of a golden shower. In all cases, it was never described of Zeus falling for their kindness or personality, the gods are pursuing them almost always because of their outward beauty. They would then be raped and left to the side, discarded with children as if the women were nothing but a toy to play around with then throw. The action of donning a persona and repeatedly going from one mortal woman to the next without any proper care shows a pattern of carelessness and arrogance that the male gods hold themselves to around mortal women. Male gods, with little to no doubt, had zero respect for the average women and would only make occasional exceptions for incredible women who later on would get married to a man regardless, such as Psyche, Atalanta and Clytemnestra. This lack of respect would allow them to blatantly do whatever they wished to the women and leave them without thinking about the consequences. As this portrayal occurs repeatedly in myths, this idea that women were simply there to increase male sexual desire became a norm in classical Greek society, with the concept of prostitutes forming. These absurd notions that women are nothing toys to handle would be seen in society with the intense regulations women had to follow, and the way they were treated would parallel the treatment shown in myths, with glaringly obvious disrespect and ridicule. In the cases where the mortal women would face the male god and refuse their romantic advances, disastrous events would occur in the face of the gods' rage. The most modernized myth would be the one of Hades and Persephone. The god of the Underworld would abduct Persephone from above ground to attempt to make her his queen. A shocking part of this story is that Hades only abducted Persephone with permission from Zeus. To the male gods, abducting an innocent woman for their own desire is normal. The story of Medusa, who was raped for her beauty but cursed for her anger. She was a virgin priestess in the temple of Athena, and Poseidon raped her within the temple all because she did not want to get romantically involved with him.

⁹ "OVID, METAMORPHOSES 1 - Theoi Classical Texts Library."

¹⁰ Wikipedia Contributors, "Zeus."

¹¹ Chaliakopoulos, "Top 13 Transformations of Greek Mythology | TheCollector."

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Again, Daphne and Apollo. The god physically chases after her multiple times until she must resort to Zeus to save her from this fate. Out of pity, he turns her into a laurel tree to preserve her chastity. The main reason Zeus headed her request was because it would keep her virginity, and Apollo was purely after her beauty. Poseidon initially pursued Amphitrite, a beautiful sea nymph, to be his wife. But after multiple rejections to protect her virginity, he coerced her into becoming his wife. The most saddening myth of Apollo and Cassandra. Apollo bestowed the gift of prophecy to seduce her, but Cassandra rejected him. Enraged, he cursed her so that nobody would believe her prophecies. If he had not committed such a callous act out of spite, the fall of Troy could have been prevented. The trojan horse, the war, and millions of deaths may have been avoided, if only the gods could handle mere rejection. A very interesting pattern occurs that women only fled in instances where their chastity and virginity must be protected. It is a mixture of fear of the god and what might happen to them, and the societal pressure that they must preserve their virginity that makes them flee improper circumstances. And those who enforced those societal standards, the gods, are the very ones taking the mortal women against their will and doing as they please. If the women repudiate the male gods, they risk the entirety of the gods unfair wrath. In the end, the women are never faced with the freedom of choice. These myths directly correlate to society as men and kings in real life would have multiple wives and never treat women as equal. This would be accepted because the myths that the people learnt as their only sources of entertainment, would women like so.

It is notable that Zeus, the god associated with marriage, is responsible for the majority of infidelities involving male gods and mortal women. This highlights a significant power imbalance within the mythological framework, where male gods act with little accountability while female mortals bear the consequences. The repeated punishment of women, despite their often being victims of male aggression, reflects and reinforces the patriarchal values of classical society, normalizing the control and subjugation of female agency. Tales of male gods and mortal women reveal a consistent pattern of male impunity and female punishment, epitomized by Zeus's own infidelities. This dynamic underscores a profound power imbalance that served to reinforce patriarchal norms within classical society, where male dominance was normalized and female agency was suppressed.

IV. FEMALE GODS I MALE MORTALS

As we move on to the extent of expectations that female gods held towards mortal men, I will be examining the circumstances in the myths between them which typically involve guidance, assistance and the reinforcement of heroic ideals. While the gods bestowed gifts upon mortals, they expected male heroes to wield the gifts with power and glory most often to complete quests and achieve greatness or win over a woman, whereas when female mortals were given gifts it was often under guise of punishment for perceived misused of divine favor or for exceeding prescribed boundaries. While these stories portray women as supportive figures who contribute to male success and maintaining social order, they are thereby reinforcing traditional gender roles where women's primary role is to empower men. The male mortals simply receive aid from the respectful female gods, who do not confuse aid with ill intentions. The patterns here offered by the female gods are incredibly more mundane and heartfelt compared to the ones by male gods to female mortlas. The myths I will go through will divulge the simplicity of the female gods actions and how this corresponds with how female mortals had to act in society, and in regards to mortal ment. In doing so, we can solidify our understanding about the expectations in attitudes that women were forced to uphold.

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The ways in which female gods interacted with male mortals were often pure-hearted and primarily involved guiding and gifting. In scenarios where they got involved with male mortals, regarding leniency and love in some cases, it was with consent from both parties. In cases with gifts and guidance, myths such as Athena and Odysseus, Hera and Jason, Athena and Perseus, Athena and Heracles, Athena and Achilles, and Hera and Paris are ones that come to mind the easiest. These stories all portray female gods as the bringer of gifts and wisdom. When emotions are heightened between female gods and male mortals, stories such as Aphrodite and Adonis, Artemis and Hippolytus, Aphrodite and Paris, and Artemis and Orion are notable myths. Due to the opposing nature of the expectations and attitudes of female gods and male gods when it comes down to interacting with mortals, we will be analysing the circumstances between female gods and male mortals, and how these stories portray women as supportive figures who contribute to male success and maintaining social order, they are thereby reinforcing traditional gender roles where women's primary role is to empower men.

The most sincere ways female gods interact with male mortals is by offering gifts and knowledge. Athena actively helps to guide Odysseus¹² on his way home, as she represents wisdom and strategic power. Hera also assists Jason¹³ in his quest for the Golden Fleece, reflecting her selective support for male heroes aligned with her interests. Athena provides Perseus with tools to defeat Medusa, reinforcing her role as a patroness of male heroes. Again, with Heracles whom she aids during the tasks of his labors. Once again, she intervened with Achilles¹⁴ fate in the Iliad by offering guidance. Her repeated action of offering guidance, knowledge and wisdom emphasizes that even the mightiest men depend on divine women for success in battle. Hera offers Paris¹⁵ power, leading to the Trojan war. Though the power was given out of ill intention for revenge from a contest, the action indicates how female gods sometimes manipulate men's actions to serve their own agendas, often leading to chaos and destruction. An important point to take note of here is that no matter what the goddess' own intentions towards the event or action are, they will never take it out on or readily use the mortal against their will. Even in cases where power is unjustly given to the mortal, it will simply adjust the fate of the event as a whole rather than the fate and circumstances of the mortal themselves. This is in stark contrast to how male gods treat mortals, as the gods have no respect for female mortals, yet treat the male mortals with utmost manliness. Here, it seems as though the balance of power, friendship and respect for each other is balanced and mutual between female gods and male mortals. This could stem from two things. First, being that the male mortal believes he is of equal value to a female god, but he would never be of equal value to a male god. Not all male mortals believe this, but it could be a possible reason for why some have the arrogance to spite the female gods, even when all they have done is to help the male mortals. Secondly, because the female gods are wiser and more emotionally intelligent than the male gods, therefore they understand the respect and value that mortals deserve. From this we can infer that society expected women to be kind and considerate to whomever they spoke to, no matter the treatment or reaction they get in return. The men may speak to women however they wish, but women would always have to uphold a certain standard of grace and elegance.

¹² Homer, "The Internet Classics Archive | the Odyssey by Homer."

¹³ Wikipedia Contributors, "Jason."

¹⁴ "The Internet Classics Archive | the Iliad by Homer."

¹⁵ Atsma, "JUDGEMENT of PARIS - Greek Mythology."

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Another way female gods had the most interactions with male mortals was when their allegiance or love was involved. Aphrodite and Adonis, for example. Aphrodite fell in love with a mortal hunter, Adonis, who was killed by a boar while hunting. Saddened by grief, his death led Aphrodite to create the annual cycle of rebirth, symbolized by flowers blooming in the spring. Artemis and Hippolytus is a similar case, Hippolytus was a devotee of Artemis and therefore rejected love. He was falsely accused of rape and was cursed by his father Theseus to death. Honoring Hippolytus, Artemis revealed the truth the next day showcasing her loyalty and chastity. Aphrodite saves Paris during his duel with Menelaus, emphasizing her role in protecting those she favours despite their flaws. Lastly, Artemis and Orion. He was her hunter and companion, and while hunting Artemis accidentally shoots Orion with an arrow. This myth demonstrates how even a powerful male figure like Orion can be defeated by a female goddess, and it is one of the rare myths where the male character's fate is shaped by a woman's intervention. Again, even though these myths contain romantic and false accusations, the female gods handle these with grace and humility, while easily ending the situation. Notably, the romantic interactions between female gods and male mortals ended in death. During the course of the mortals' life they may have loved each other, but their story remains tainted by sorrow. Using this as a guideline for mortal life, it seems to say the moment powerful women love, it often ends tragically. Again, if women are told to continuously offer guidance and wisdom as Athena did, it would simply be reinforcing the traditional gender roles where women's primary role is to empower men.

The fact that the husband to the goddess of marriage is the reason for over fifty percent of infidelities warrants our immediate attention, showcasing that there is not only a power play among gods and mortals, but within the gods themselves. It is known that the goddesses, no matter how powerful, must ask Zeus for permission before commencing their deeds. Athena, the goddess of warfare, must ask Zeus before intervening in war. These myths act as a mirror, even though the women have been so incredibly wronged, they are discarded for and left on the side. This is portrayed in society when they held little to no regard for women's well being in ancient Greece.

V. MALE GODS I MALE MORTALS

Lastly, to fully deepen our understanding of myths, expectations and attitudes we must examine the expectations and circumstances between male gods and male mortals, which emphasize themes of mentorship, legacy and the validation of their egos through acts of heroism. The contrast between the glorified and often heroic circumstances of mortal men compared to the horrific, rather desperate circumstances of mortal women in the event of divine intervention reflects a cultural devaluation of female well-being and a prioritisation of male achievement. While analysing these myths, a pattern of paternal support and patronage. The mortal men are often part of, or venturing on a quest in which the male gods are aiding them in. In both male god and female goddesses intervention regarding male mortals, the primary circumstance occurring is guidance and gifting. Compared to the intervention with female mortals which differ drastically, often stripping away their basic rights. These narratives underscore the importance of male lineage, the pursuit of glory, and the role of divine approval in achieving lasting fame, revealing a culture forced on perpetuating male dominance. This is in relation to my broader argument of divine intervention for men and women in myths and how this reveals cultural attitudes towards women in Greece. By examining the interactions between male gods and male mortals, we can connect the final link between myths and how they perpetuated stereotypes that regulated women for centuries.

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Regarding the myths between male gods and male mortals, the primary type of stories where they interact are where the god is offering a gift or imparting wisdom on the mortal. The second more uncommon type is where there are romantic relationships, though it is mostly with Apollo or Dionysus. The stories of Zeus and Hector, Apollo and Orpheus, Hermes and Odysseus, Poseidon and Theseus, Zeus and Perseus and Zeus and Achilles all showcase the gods passion in carrying out their legacy and helping mortal men, with little to no stipulations. The romantic myths with Apollo and Hycinthius. And then simply the paternal myths with Apollo and Asclepius, and an opposite one of Apollo and Phaethon. These tales showcased the glorification of the trials that the men go through, whereas the female mortals often received little to no recognition.

To start with the myths Zeus, who protects Hector during battles in the Iliad, and Achilles as well. Zeus intervenes to ensure Achilles' fate is fulfilled in the Iliad. He protects Perseus¹⁶ by providing him divine tools for his quest. Apollo gifts Orpheus¹⁷ a lyre, showcasing artistic patronage and influencing him to further his artistic career, and Apollo extends Admetus's life by tricking the fates, showing favour towards virtuous men. Poseidon aids Theseus¹⁸, his son, during his adventures. Hermes gives Odysseus a herb to resist Circe's magic, as divine protection for cleverness. As you can see, the events of these myths are short, sweet, and to the point. The gods are simply aiding heroes and getting caught up in the testosterone-filled haze, swinging swords while beating their hairy chests. To protect their legacy, lineage, and nothing else. A factor to consider is that in these myths, and myths everywhere from those times, never depicted women as heroes. That was simply unheard of. In this modern generation we have become so much more equal, but this shows us that in classical Greek society, a male god can never go to a mortal woman simply to 'help.' They were also very loving, and the myth of Apollo and Hycinthius is a well known one. Apollo gave up everything, his shrine, his music, to spend time with Hycinthius. Yet he died playing discus, bestowed by heartbreak, Apollo made Hycinthius into a flower. Apollo also helps son become a great healer, showcasing male familial bonds and how they actively participate in the success of their male offspring, reinforcing the importance of legacy and bloodlines. Sometimes, they may take it too far. Apollo gives his son Phaethon control of the sun chariot, leading to disaster. A lesson in divine punishment where male gods allow other male mortals to make their own choices, showing how men have a degree of autonomy in these interactions yet also face divine consequences. Though, the pattern of analysis for these myths are quite short as these would be what in these times we consider normal, eventful occurrences. These types of stories would be the most commonly seen ones paralleled in classical Greek life, with the men mentoring men for generations.

The stories of male gods bestowing power and greatness upon male mortals can be seen in tandem with the way society used to function, and still functions today. Their stories were simple and to the point, and were mirrored in the actions taken in ancient Greece. Men and their legacy were the most important thing, compared to the drastic differences and horrors in stories with mortal women. The social tendency revealed is that men in power in the classical period viewed women as toys to handle, with little respect, and therefore allowed them to have full autonomy over womens body and rights.

¹⁶ George Frazer, "Apollodorus, Library, Book 2, Chapter 4, Section 1."

¹⁷ George Frazer, "Apollodorus, Library, Book 1, Chapter 3, Section 2."

¹⁸ Perrin, "Plutarch, Theseus, Chapter 6."

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VI. CONCLUSION

In conclusion, the differences in divine intervention between female and male gods, and between female and male mortals, reveal important insights into Greek cultural attitudes towards women during the classical period. Female mortals often faced harsh and unfair punishments, while male gods frequently acted with little regard for women's agency. Female gods, in contrast, tended to support male mortals, reinforcing traditional gender roles where women's power was limited to nurturing and guidance. To further upheave the power imbalance between mortal men and women, the male gods gave little respect to women while endlessly bestowing gifts upon the men. These patterns highlight societal anxieties about female power and the normalization of male dominance.

While some may argue these myths reflect broader themes of divine order or cautionary lessons, the consistent blaming and suffering of women cannot be overlooked. These stories reveal how ancient Greek society justified unequal treatment of women and reinforced restrictive gender norms. So to answer the question, what extended to the differences in divine intervention for men and women in Greek mythology reveal Greek cultural attitudes towards women during the classical period? The patterns across both bodies, female and male, mortal and god, showcase that the attitudes and expectations regarding women were significantly lower and more derogatory in myths, which served as guidelines in regular society during the classical period.

Understanding the significance of these myths is important because they shaped foundational cultural values for the world. By examining ancient narratives, we see how far society has progressed in gender equality and inclusivity as a whole, and why it remains crucial to challenge lingering stereotypes rooted in these early stories. These stories show us where we have been- and inspire where we must go.

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PREVALENT DIFFERENCES BETWEEN IRANIAN ZOROASTRIANS AND INDIAN PARSEES.

WRITTEN BY FARHAD DRIVER



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ABSTRACT

The purpose of this paper is to discover whether there are societal, economic and cultural differences in Zoroastrian society in Iran versus India. The argument this paper constructs is two fold, firstly that the Zoroastrian society pre-conquest was susceptible to a divide because of the over-integration of the religion and the location of the followers and secondly that due to this a divide has manifested in the categories listed above. The key findings of the paper can be found in Section 2 where the differences are extrapolated from current information on the two societies.

INTRODUCTION

After threats of persecution and mass migration the Zoroastrian religion is now showing declining population numbers and division within the community for the last few decades. This emerging threat begs the question; What are some of the societal, economic and cultural differences that are prevalent in the modern day as a result of the divide created by the Arab conquest of Persia.

Before analyzing how to answer this question, we must first set the context. The Zoroastrian religion started in ancient Persia (modern-day Iran) during 1500 BCE, following the teachings of the prophet Zarathustra. The Zoroastrians the prevalent ethno-religious group in Persia lived through the Achaemenid, Parthian, and Sasanian empires. The Zoroastrians were the first people to believe in the idea of dualism, and the fight of good versus evil, an idea that has manifested itself as the core of many religions such as Christianity as well as Hinduism. It's important here to note what barriers have held Zoroastrianism back from growing whilst Christianity and Hinduism flourish. This will be explored later in the paper under the divergence. Following the Sasanian empire, the Arab conquest of Persia in 651 CE left the religion divided into three main factions. Those who fled Persia to the nearby port of Gujarat who were welcomed and partly assimilated into the culture, those who stayed and avoided persecution under Islamic rule inside Persia and still reside in Iran, as well as those who stayed and avoided Islamic persecution but later migrated to India in the 19th century.

This paper will analyze the cultural, economic, and social differences of the first two factions, those who originally fled to India and those who stayed and still reside within Iran. This paper also intends to capture and analyze the recent but promising convergence of these two factions in the Western world for example the United States of America. Through analyzing the socio-economic divide between the faction that migrated to India commonly referred to as (Parsees/Parsis) versus the faction that still resides in Iran commonly referred to as (Iranian Zoroastrians pronounced Zur-ah-thush-tees), as well as analyzing primary sourced data on the economic prosperity of both factions. This paper aims to fill a gap in research on the current topic, Whilst many have theorized as to why the Zoroastrians are successful in certain regions and have analyzed their ancient cultural background seldom has it been analyzed how a gap has been created in the religion as a result of the annexation of Persia. The importance of filling this gap in the analysis is that it sets a baseline understanding of how this impacts the religion in the present day and creates a foundation to analyze on a more broad spectrum, the religious impact of annexation and Proselytism. The criteria for evaluative analysis of both parties in this paper will be Economic prosperity, Cultural adeptness, and social harmony and acceptance within their respective communities. Whilst other analysis of primary sources on this topic have been done before cultural adeptness and societal integration have not yet been analyzed even though they play a prominent role in determining "religious success". If this paper is successful it will be able to explain the divergence between the two prominent parties as a direct result of the Arabic invasion of 651 CE.

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SECTION 1: UNDERSTANDING ZOROASTRIANISM

Analysis of data on the social, economic, and cultural standing that Zoroastrians have had in Iran and India after the Arab conquest of Persia in 651 CE, denotes a significant divide built between the Parsis in India and the Iranian Zoroastrians. This immediate divergence is representative of the consequently and conversely much larger and long-term differences between the two societies and the impact that has had on the religion.

Understanding the Zoroastrian faith and its theological guidelines as well as the factors that made it susceptible to divide is important for a multitude of reasons. This paper will first analyze the distinct history of the two separate parties at hand. Then based on this analysis, the paper will deconstruct the differences that are prevalent in the Arab invasion that were non-existent pre-invasion. It also serves as the crucial foundation for proving this paper's thesis – that a divide exists within the Zoroastrian society today and has permeated due to the annexation of Persia. In aiding the greater goal of this paper the goal of this section is to prove that the Zoroastrianism manifested in Persia made it susceptible to division post-annexation of Persia.

This paper will first analyze Zoroastrian theology and scripture disseminated in ancient Persia before conducting analysis on disparities between parsees and Iranian Zoroastrians; The essential core belief of Zoroastrianism is that there is an omnipotent god named Ahura Mazda who spreads the word of the Asha (eternal/cosmic law.) Ahura Mazda while being omnipotent relies on the force of humans to make three decisions in their everyday lives to keep the evil spirit of the world (Ahriman) at bay. These three decisions are “Good thoughts, Good words, Good deeds.” (original translation: Humata, Huxta, Huvarshta) following these three principles along with conducting the ceremonial aspect of the religion makes you a good human and a driver of the force of good in the eyes of Ahura Mazda. One key difference in the religious celebratory aspect of the two parties at hand is that Iranian Zoroastrians celebrate Nowruz (new year by the ancient Iranian calendar) by laying out a table called the Haft-sin table on the 21st of March. This tradition is a staple of Iranian Zoroastrian culture but is practically non-existent among the Parsis. The analysis for why this is is because the tradition of the haft-sin table can be seen as an interlinkage between one's Zoroastrian and Iranian identity which has cemented over centuries of residence in Iran. While all Zoroastrians originated from modern-day Iran Parsis today feel a much weaker connection to the region because of the centuries of absenteeism. It is also likely that Parsis wouldn't want to associate themselves with modern-day Iran, because as of present the region is seen as Islamic and not culturally diverse. The second piece of analysis building on the region's stereotypically Islamic perception is that the Islamic religion has oppressed and persecuted Zoroastrians which intuitively leads Zoroastrians not to want to associate themselves with Islam.

One of the key texts in the Zoroastrian Religion is the “Zend Avesta” (translation: Interpretation of the Avesta) The Avesta is an extremely sacred text and can be seen as the Zoroastrian scripture parallel to the Christian Bible or Islamic Quran. The Zend Avesta was compiled during the Sassanian Empire across all of ancient Persia, At this time Zoroastrianism was by far the dominant religion in Persia therefore the nation acted under the rules and regulations of Zoroastrianism and not other religions. Under the Avesta, there are two crucial sections to take note of, The *Yasna* and the *Vendidad*. The *Yasna* is the name for the religious prayer that is performed daily in fire temples (the Zoroastrian place of worship). The *Vendidad* is the moral code of the Zoroastrians and served as a basis for the legal code during the Sassanian empire in ancient Persia. These two fundamental texts have stayed the same post the Arabic occupation of Persia, and are practiced and interpreted the same way by both parties, a key similarity between Parsis and Iranian Zoroastrians. It can be analyzed here that when a part of the religion isolates itself from its surroundings and setting and strictly focuses on the theological aspect such as the Avesta it manages to stay practiced through both cultures, leading us to a conclusion that it is possible integration of religion and geographical location leads to division.

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The basic religious rituals that take place in the Zoroastrian faith are as follows, Navjote, Yasna, and the Dakhma. These three rituals cover daily practices as well as the initiation into the religion and the passing of a member. The Yasna ceremony is the fire ceremony that is conducted in fire temples around the world where scripture from the Yasna is recited while speaking towards a fire, which is a sign of purity in the Zoroastrian religion. The navjote is the initiation ceremony signifying the entrance into the religion it happens to a child between the ages of 7 and 12 and presents them with the religious clothing they will wear every day for the rest of their lives. (sudreh and kusti). The dakhma is the ritual through which a member of the community is respected at their passing, once a member passes they are left in a “tower of silence” at the top of a hill where vultures can come and pick at their body. This is considered the final act of charity that one can conduct as a Zoroastrian. Whilst these ceremonies stay the same within both groups it is important to analyze the minute differences that demonstrate reminiscence of the division between them, the tower of silence in Yazd, Iran is 15 kilometers away from civilization and is in the middle of the desert, whilst the tower of silence in Mumbai, India is in the middle of the city in a relatively prominent location. We can evaluate through this that the Parsis have far more resources as they are able to afford a prime location and are likely more socially integrated within India as to Iranian Zoroastrians in Iran since the Indian government allows them to display their religion in a central area of the city whereas the Iranian Zoroastrians religious structure is isolated from public view.

It is the factors above that all contributed to the unification of the religious populace up until 651 CE with the annexation of Persia. We must analyze the theological similarities above and the strings that weaved together every Zoroastrians day to day life in order for us to truly understand the magnitude of disruption caused by Arab occupation of Persia.

Before analyzing and decrypting the relationship between Zoroastrianism and Islam within Persia leading up to the annexation of Persia, we must first understand the influence Zoroastrianism had on the creation of Islam and all Abrahamic faiths. This crucial analysis also allows us to further prove why exactly was Zoroastrianism susceptible to division post-annexation.

The reason historians know about the correlation between Zoroastrianism and the main Abrahamic faiths (Christianity, Judaism, Islam) is because of the idea of dualism. Zoroastrianism being debatedly the oldest religion in the world is bound to have some sort of influence over religions to come, but the magnitude of influence was more significant than one would assume. The core principle of Zoroastrianism as mentioned in the introduction is the idea of good versus evil. Ahura Mazda the omnipotent god created two twins Spenta Mainyu (force of good) and Angra Mainyu/Ahriman (force of evil) the battle for influence over the world between these two twins is the Zoroastrian explanation for all the events of the world. Not only is this general idea of good vs evil, portrayed in all Abrahamic faiths but even the scriptural references are extremely similar; Both Zoroastrianism and the Abrahamic faiths mention the battle of light versus darkness. In Chapters 40-48 of the Book of Isaiah, there are extreme resemblances with the third and fourth verses of the Gatha 44. This further proves the idea that the susceptibility to the division of Zoroastrianism was no fault of theological ideology but instead, over-integration with the region.

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It is important to directly analyze the interactions of Islam and Zoroastrianism pre-annexation to understand not only what the possible motives of the Arabs were but also to establish the basis for similarities between the two religions. It is important to note here that Islam was the only other prominent religion near Persia at the time and therefore it is speculated that the Arabs could have been competing for land, buy in to their religion, or resources. It was part of the Islamic scripture to spread the word of Allah contrary to Zoroastrianism scripture where conversion was more frowned upon as it was a symbol of impurity, there is consensus among the academic community that this was one of if not the the largest motive for invasion. Considering the hostility between the groups demonstrated by the invasion, one would imagine there was no significant direct interaction between the Zoroastrians and the Arabs, nevertheless there were semblances of interaction between the two nations such as trade conducted by the Sassanian Zoroastrians with Arabic tribes through the trade routes in the Persian Gulf. This trade is theorized as the means by which Zoroastrianism was able to influence Islam, it was said that on trade excursions Zoroastrian traders would introduce the idea of dualism as well as the purity of fire something that we can see being prominent in Islamic scripture. We can analyze through Islam Mahdi(translation-savior) and Zoroastrians Saoshynant(translation: bringer of light) that there is a significant overlap in ideology inside of the two scriptures. Both discuss a savior who will appear at the end of time to restore humanity and make the world pure. Another similarity is the significance of fire and light as symbols of purity in Zoroastrianism as well as the depiction of Allah in Islam as the "Light of the heavens and the earth" (surah:24.35). Through this, we can conclude that while not substantial there was certainly interaction between Zoroastrianism and Islam pre-Islamic expansion.

To evaluate some of the sources that present evidence of Zoroastrian influence over biblical religions. Sections Daniel 1:21,6:28 and 10:1 and Ezra 1:1 and 6:14 as well as Isaiah 44:24,44:25,44:26,44:37,44:28 and 45:1. All speak positively about the Zoroastrian influence over the biblical religion. It is important to analyze though that there is possible bias here as this may simply be an attempt at claiming more interaction with the Persian region and claims to land in the area something the biblical population has made evident as a goal. It is important to note as well that the lack of Zoroastrian records from the Achaemenid period and the lack of documentation of early Biblical and Islamic scripture does serve as a barrier to large-scale analysis on the scale of influence of Zoroastrianism on the Abrahamic faiths.

Effectively what we have proven through direct analysis of religious scripture is that there are noticeable Zoroastrian theological overlaps with the Abrahamic faiths likely as an impact of trade relations in the region. This means that it was not the theological aspect of the religion that led to division and cannot be considered the main reason for Zoroastrianism's susceptibility to division.

Finally, before moving on to the post-occupational analysis of the two parties, we must analyze and look at the pre-conquest unity and institutionalism the Zoroastrians relied on. This is the precursor to analyzing why the Zoroastrians were not able to remain unified post-displacement of parts of the population. This directly proves why Zoroastrianism was susceptible to division post-annexation.

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The earliest point to which we can date Zoroastrianism as being prevalent/dominant in Persia is the Achaemenid Empire. Under the rule of Cyrus the Great and then Darius the Great, the Zoroastrian religion was institutionalized within Persia an example of this is Zoroastrian law being the law that all of Persia operated on. Whilst there is debate as to whether or not Cyrus the Great was Zoroastrian we can likely analyze that the Persian population definitely was predominantly Zoroastrian during his rule. This is for two reasons, the first being that the rule of Cyrus the Great and Darius the Great was only ten years apart, for there to be such a religious variance between a population not being Zoroastrian to a ruler who would come only ten years later to publicly praise and revere Ahura Mazda, would be nearly impossible, due to the lack of state-wide infrastructure for communication at the time² the only way to spread the word of Zarathustra would be through word of mouth, it is extremely unlikely word of mouth alone was able to spread through the whole Persian empire in just ten years. Along with this, we know for a fact that Darius the Great was Zoroastrian and revered Zoroastrianism this knowledge is accrued through the archaeological evidence we can gather from the time.



The above is a photo of the Behistun inscriptions in Iran, Archaeologists date it towards the Sassanian empire more specifically the rule of Darius the Great. We can analyze from the photo that there is a group of people around a spiritual figure in the air. We know that this figure is the symbol of Ahura Mazda the omnipotent god in Zoroastrianism, as this same symbol was used multiple times after the Behistun inscriptions in scriptures like the Zend Avesta. The general academic consensus around the inscriptions is that the people being rounded up with their hands behind their backs on the right side of the frame are people who have committed some sort of crime and the person who appears to be largest towards the left of the screen is Darius the Great holding them for judgment with Ahura Mazda above him. If the rhetoric that Darius the Great spreading through inscriptions was that you would be judged according to the principles of Zoroastrianism it is quite likely that the population was Zoroastrian, otherwise, there would be revolt and discontent among the population for forcing them to live their lives off the principles of religion they don't believe in, yet we have no evidence of such discontent. Following the rule of Darius the Great, the Persian identity became centered around Zoroastrian principles such as worship of fire and Magi priesthood, this furthers the idea that the over-unification of Zoroastrianism with Persian culture was the reason for the divide post-annexation. This analysis proves that it is likely that Cyrus the Great was indeed Zoroastrian, and helps us further understand the scale of which Zoroastrianism was accepted in the early stages of the Persian empire.

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Moving on to the Parthian empire the Zoroastrian identity was still very strongly linked with the Persian identity, More fire temples were built and the reciting of the Yasna became an everyday practice. even though there was Greek influence in Persia in this period the religion stayed relatively resilient towards this influence and continued down the streamlined path of expansion through the region.

The early stages of the Sassanian empire can be seen as the peak of the Zoroastrian religion, Magi priesthood was common, fire temples were being built often and Zoroastrianism became the official state-sanctioned religion. This official period of institutionalization by recognizing Zoroastrianism as the state religion and centering laws around it re-confirms the idea of Persians' identity being infused with Zoroastrianism. The issue with creating this uniform identity although, was that every person had their own place of the spectrum of self-association to their identity, some would value the Persian part of this identity more than the Zoroastrian part, others the opposite. This semi-forceful unification of their identity led to an ununified decision calculus when the decision to leave or stay had to be made.

Come 651 CE we finally arrived at the annexation of Persia by the Arabs led by caliph Umar, notable battles had been lost by the Persians previously such as the battle of Nahavand in 642 CE that had led to the moment where King Yazdegerd III leader of the Sassanian empire was murdered marking the end of the war and an Arab victory. After the occupation the Ummayyads (the first Arab dynasty) wasted no time conducting rapid Islamization of the Persian people, considering this was the first Muslim dynasty we can theorize that the Ummayyads wanted to spread their religion and ideology as quickly as possible to grow a large base for their future expansions. Within the Persian populace, there were groups of people who converted out of fear for their lives and groups of people who decided to attempt to maintain their religious identity. The problem for the group that chose to maintain its religious identity was that they chose to do this in different ways. Through the Qissa-i-Sanjana we know there were large groups who fled to Sanjan, Gujarat in India they were the Parsis, there were also those who felt conflicted enough about leaving Persia that they decided to stay and developed enclaves in Persia such as Yazd where the largest Zoroastrian fire temple in Iran is located.

When comparing Zoroastrian and Islamic accounts of this event the biases are blatantly present. The Zoroastrians speak of unity through invasion which we know is not true as there is division today as a result of lack of unity, The Arabs glorify the invasion and portray themselves as moral but by ethical standards of today and the past the practices conducted during the annexation were blatantly unethical. This leads us to have to look at facts both parties agree upon to gain an objective account of the events that unfolded.

Through the analysis of the unity of the Zoroastrian identity followed by the near-instant schism of the religion it is easily denoted that the occupation of Persia was the driving factor for the longstanding division between the two groups today, it has also been proven the reason for susceptibility to division as not having a unified decision making calculus between the populace. This directly answers what made Zoroastrianism susceptible to division and will become crucial during the second section of the paper. The second section of this paper will move to analyze the direct impacts of division and how it has permeated physically speaking such as cultural division, economic disparity, and societal acceptance.

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THE DIVERGENCE

Decisions have consequences. The ancestors of the modern-day Iranian Zoroastrians made the decision to prioritize their loyalty to their state by choosing not to migrate away from the state whilst also choosing not to convert to Islam. Those actions today have practical effects on their genetic descendants. Those who chose to flee their birthplace and migrate to India out of fear for possible religious persecution or forced conversion made a decision as well. That decision has very real consequences not only for their descendants but also for everyone who has ever interacted with them. The goal of this section is to explicitly analyze and decompose what these subtle but also blatant consequences are for each community within zoroastrianism.

It is fundamental to establish the consequences of each decision before comparing the two societies to understand what differences are entrenched within them as a result of these decisions. This directly answers the question of what differences there are between the two societies and whether or not they are a result of the Zoroastrian subjugation. The section will continue to be formatted as such, first a dissection of societal differences between the Iranian Zoroastrians and the Parsees, followed by Economic differences and finally Cultural differences.

To start our dissection of the societal differences present between both societies, let's set some context. After the Arab Invasion in 651CE, the Islamic rulers instituted the jizya tax, a policy that, while first used in Persia, became the standard for all Islamic dominions. The jizya tax was seen as a symbolic transactional relationship where any non-Muslims living in an Islamic state would pay heavy taxes to the government in return for indefinite protection against any form of invasion. One Islamic author named Muhammad Al-tabari wrote work describing the forms of social marginalization taking place within Persia during Islamic rule, he wrote that non-muslim people were not allowed to practice religion publicly and were even not allowed to have certain roles within society. To synthesize the Iranian Zoroastrians, life was not one of religious freedom and autonomy and more closely resonated with domineering oppression.

During this period the Parsees that had migrated to India had already significantly begun to adapt to their region, leaving behind traditions they held close to their heart from Persia. Signs of this are that the Parsees began using Gujarati instead of continuing to speak Farsi. A clear attempt at cultural assimilation something that wasn't an option for the Iranians. Whilst there was a certain extent of cultural assimilation there was a limit to this, the king of Gujarat at the time stated that Parsees were free to stay in Gujarat as long as they followed three rules, Parsee woman would only marry Parsee men and vice versa, Parsees had to speak the local language and finally the Parsees had to dress like the locals at the time this was Saris for the woman and no clear guideline for men. The two cultures blended quite well as today Parsee woman often wear "Garas" when dressing traditionally, the Gara is a modified version of the Sari.

During their stay in Iran, the Iranian Zoroastrians had no choice but to form ethnic enclaves to avoid high taxation and to garner some bare levels of religious freedom within their communities. The Iranian Zoroastrians created these ethnic enclaves mainly in Yazd and Kerman. Without these areas for practice of the religion, it's unlikely the religion would have been able to survive until modern day as constant persecution and harassment would inevitably lead to the ethnic-cleansing of the religion. Effectively, to be a practicing member of Zoroastrian society in Iran, you had to stay in a religious enclave.

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Comparatively, in India at the time, the Parsees faced a relatively similar situation where, because of the laws set by the Gujarat king, they were forced to isolate themselves from the rest of society. Parsees ended up creating their own educational systems as well as having their own ecosystems in which to thrive. There are still lasting impacts of this isolation of the community. Even though the Parsees are far more permeated within India now, they still often live in Parsee-colonies where the children play with each other and speak Gujarati no matter where they reside, and the men and women typically spend their evenings interacting with only other Parsees. These parsee-colonies can be attributed as one of the main reasons that there hasn't been cultural erosion in the society.

Another pivotal aspect of a religious society is the freedom to practice their religion. In Iran, the Islamic rule destroyed majority of fire temples making it near impossible to practice daily rituals such as the Yasna. This, paired along with the fear of being exposed as a Zoroastrian was a driving factor for the private practice of religion. Private practice entailed families conducting prayers inside their own home and possibly having quite different rituals to other families in the same area. Therefore despite the fact that the Iranian Zoroastrians lived in religious enclaves with each other interacting with each other every day belike, their interpretation and practice of the religion was fragmented as it could only be conducted behind closed doors.

Comparatively, the Parsees in India were more unified in religious practice. Although they were segregated from the rest of society they were not forbade from practising the religion, thus fire temples were established where people would pray together and religious bodies such as Pachayats were established to set rules around how to practice the religion. These factors combined resulted in the societal unification of the parsees and how they practiced religion. A prominent example of this is the Atash Berams (fire temples) that were developed in the early years of the parsee residence in india, the most prominent being the Iranshah a large fire temple in Udvada, Gujarat in India. This opportunity for open practice of the religion in a public space supports the premise that the parsees were more and are still more socially unified.

From a statistical and population standpoint its crucial to look at the size of these two sections of zoroastrianism and examine whether their population is a consequence of their environment or a factor to their environment. The zoroastrian population in Iran is a mere 25,000 as per the 2016 Iranian census, It is also important to take into consideration that this population is spread most densely in urban areas such as Yazd, Tehran and Kerman. Looking back at the population in Iran directly post the Arab Conquest we can discern a steep drop. It's paramount though to first examine the validity of the source here. Whilst its unlikely that there was any tampering with raw data from the census, there is a high potential that lots of practicing Zoroastrians were afraid to admit to their faith on fere of discrimination. This is evidenced through the fact that Zoroastrians are by law not even allowed to hold positions in the Iranian government, considering the law is a reflection of the Iranian citizens values we can infer that religious diversity is not a key value for the population. This discrimination is likely the reason for the population decline as more and more people move away from the religion.

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Analogously in India, as per the 2011 census, the population of Zoroastrians is 60,000. It is also densely populated in urban areas but almost completely in just one city, Mumbai, Maharashtra. These numbers also reflect a decline that is not as steep as in Iran but still prevalent. Contrarily, in this situation, it cannot be a result of discrimination from the greater society, as parsees are widely accepted. The prime minister of India, Narendra Modi, often refers to the Parsees in press conferences and speeches, even to the extent that he publicly wished the Parsees a happy Nowruz (new year as per the Iranian calendar). This leaves the question as to why there is a population decline in India for the Parsees. The answer is multi-faceted. First of all, the population of Parsees holds uniquely conservative views compared to Zoroastrians globally. They alienate certain groups from joining the religion in multiple ways; for example, children can only join the religion if their father is a parsee and not if their mother is, people from the LGBTQ community are ostracized, and conversion is deeply forbidden. This, as well as the fact that people are moving away from the endogamia that the religion demands, has resulted in a steady population decline for the Parsees over the years.

To synthesize, from a distant lens there are many similarities between the Parsees of India and the Iranian Zoroastrians, commonalities such as that they have formed enclaves or that they have declining populations, but when examining closer, the differences exhibit themselves. Such as the oppressive state that Iranian Zoroastrians live under compared to the accepting integration of the Parsees in India or the conservative views of the Parsees versus the more accepting views of the Iranians. The environment that these two religious groups are set in are vastly different, yet have managed great influence on both the groups resulting in different every day practices and different values.

The second subsection under the second section of this paper aims to extensively examine the differences between the Parsees and the Iranian Zoroastrians from an economic standpoint. This sub-section will go over economic differences directly post the Arab conquest of Persia until the modern day, examining what exactly the difference is and how it is a result of the Arab invasion.

To begin this section, let's start at the beginning. Post Arab conquest, an immediate *Jizya* tax was instituted on all legal non-muslim groups in Persia. By paying this tax, the Zoroastrian groups were, in theory, given freedom to practice their religion within the Islamic state. Although in theory, this seems like a positive policy for the Zoroastrians, the reality of the matter was that having minute government acknowledgement to practice the religion didn't do anything.

The nationalist and patriotic nature of the Islamic population resulted in a culture such that people were reluctant to accept other religions, whether the government excepted them or not, many people would have lost husbands, brothers or sons fighting in the Arab Conquest only years before so they would not have a great perception about the Zoroastrians whose army killed said husbands, brothers and sons.

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Not only harbored resentment from the war, but the nature of the Islamic scripture also made it hard for Zoroastrianism to be accepted. Frequently, the importance of spreading the faith is written in as a principle leading people to believe that if they successfully spread the faith, they can get rewarded with good deeds that factor into their afterlife as per the religions beliefs, this means targeting conversion was likely very common making it hard for people to be open about their faith. Hence, not only did the jizya tax have direct economic harms by making the average Zoroastrian income lower and making the disposable income of families less, making it harder to save and build generational wealth, but it didn't give Zoroastrians the religious freedoms promised. This discrimination is pervasive today from a legislative and parliamentary standpoint as well, which has halted economic development for the Zoroastrians. Articles 64,67,91,115 of the Iranian Constitution clearly outline the laws regarding representation in parliament, making it impossible for a non-muslim to hold a position. This means that on top of the jizya tax, Zoroastrians in Iran are unrepresented in decision-making that directly impacts them economically, if there was representation in parliament it's possible the Zoroastrians could argue for affirmative action or tax subsidies as they are a religious minority and need the economic aid, however since there aren't any representatives in parliament, the concerns of the people are dismissed.

This continuous discrimination meant that the Iranian Zoroastrians had to pick up rural jobs, such as farming, to avoid discrimination in big cities. Often, these rural farmers also live in Zoroastrian enclaves such as Yazd or Kerman. This discrimination has had vast economic impacts as it has locked them into a cycle of poverty that will likely continue for generations to come as agriculture is not a particularly prosperous industry in Iran with lots of competition over not so much land.

Comparatively, let's break down the economic history of the Parsees from the moment they arrived in Sanjan to the present day. Whilst immediately post divide, the Iranian Zoroastrians faced economic hurdles, and the Parsees faced quite the opposite. Upon arrival, the Parsees quickly started trade initiatives along the Silk Road, trading spices and textiles all the way from China to the Middle East. Considering the recent history of conflict in the Middle East from less than 100 years ago at the time, we can infer the Parsees either did not hold a grudge or resentment towards the Arabic people in Persia, which is highly improbable as there was lots of bloodshed and cold blooded murder from both sides. The more likely theory is simply that whilst still harbouring slight amounts of resentment, the Parsees simply prioritized economic prosperity over resentment towards the Arabic people. This is something that is shown continuously through the coming years as the Parsees continuously traded with the Arabic people for centuries. The geographic location of the Parsee community upon arrival significantly aided their trade developments as they were located right at the port of Sanjan a crucial harbour for trade.

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As for the roles Parsees held in society they mostly stayed the same from immediately after arrival till around the 17th century, where majority of people were Merchants and traders with notable amounts working in the textile industry. Post the 17th century, noticeable portions of the Parsee populous began working in rudimentary level banking and as independent contractors in moneylending. The next major period in Indian and Parsee history was British occupation, from the 18th to the 20th century as the British occupied Bombay now known as Mumbai, The geographical location of the Parsees came to their assistance yet again, at the time Mumbai served as a trading hub for substances such as cotton and opium something attractive to the British hence their settlement there. The Parsees, already established in Mumbai, moving from Sanjan just 25 years ago, quickly picked up the language and began working for British companies such as the East India Company. Then, using skills learned from working for the British. Parsees made the transition to jobs such as bankers, businessmen, lawyers, and infamously doctors, there was a point in the 1980s where 80% of the doctors in Mumbai were Parsees, a remarkable feat for a group of only 100,000 or so people in a city whose population at the time was over 12 million. Today, the Parsees are per capita the richest ethnic group in all of India and continuously participate in philanthropy and investment into their religion, funding buildings such as fire temples. One major conglomerate at the heart of Parsee philanthropy is the Tata group, founded by Jamshedji Tata, the largest conglomerate in India with a market cap of just over 400 billion US dollars. Not only has the Tata group helped fund many young Parsees in India, through scholarships and charity work, but it has also become a symbol of Parsee status in society. When one mentions that they are a Parsee, people tend to associate with what has had the most influence on their lives. The undoubtedly most influential Parsee in India is the current leader of the Tata Group at any given moment. This has created a stereotype that Parsees are smart, well-spoken, and good at handling money. This stereotype worked and continues to result in positive results for the Parsees. Even if Parsees aren't displaying high levels of Intelligence or eloquence in a professional setting, there is a subconscious bias created by the association of "Parsees having lots of money and opportunities", engendering better jobs and social status.

Having analyzed the lives of the Parsees and the Iranian Zoroastrians post the conquest of Persia till the present day. This research shall proceed with a direct comparative analysis of the two groups, referring to post-subjugational differences that manifest current economic disparities. The first piece of analysis is the comparative difference between the two groups' geographical locations. Whilst the Parsees were located near the sea and near a port, the Iranian Zoroastrians were forced into enclaves in cities like Yazd and Kerman, as mentioned previously. This minute difference soon escalated to create a much larger economic disparity, as the world economy at this point was heavily reliant on trade. Being located next to a port allowed the Parsees to exploit their geographical location. It is also important to note here that in the circumstance that Iranian Zoroastrians were located near a port in Persia, it is highly unlikely that the Arab Caliphates would allow them to conduct trade on their own, nevertheless, retain profit from it. Therefore, in terms of geographical location, the Parsees were able to exploit their proximity to the sea and ability to trade in conjunction with the societal freedom to create their own economic systems and retain profits without heavy taxation. This early economic base for development gave Parsees the ability to trade with the British upon arrival, fostering a bilateral relationship that gave Parsees access to British Schooling and Jobs. The second piece of comparative analysis is centered around setting. Whilst the Iranian Zoroastrians were working blue-collar jobs as a result of marginalization in Iran surrounded only by other Iranian Zoroastrians in equally unfavourable economic condition. The Parsees surrounded themselves with the British, not only trading with them but working side by side British managers in places like the East India company. The setting around the two groups is a key factor for the degree of future opportunity. Whilst the Parsees were able to surround themselves with people in positions of power giving them a foot in the door the Iranian Zoroastrians were oppressed economically and their voices quashed at the political stage giving them much less power. To conclude, based on the geographical setting and the surrounding groups, the Parsees were able to acquire a higher level of education and skills in English literacy that gave them a comparative headstart in life compared to those around them. This advanced into higher-paying jobs that create the economic divide between Parsees and Iranian Zoroastrians. It is imperative to keep in mind that the Economic factor is one of the reasons we don't see frequent interaction between the two groups, as one has restricted geographical mobility due to less disposable income.

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The third subsection under the second section of this paper will cover the cultural and demographical differences between the two groups. The cultural differences between the Parsees and the Iranian Zoroastrians have influenced how both groups practice and preach religion from the seventh century AD up until modern day. A synthesis of both groups here is that Iranian Zoroastrians preserved traditions to a further extent due to forced insularity whilst the Parsees not extensively deviating did incorporate aspects of Indian culture into their practice of the religion and forsook traditionally Persian aspects. This subsection will elaborate on ritual practices in the two groups in modern and past society, following this the subsection will contain a comparison of the festive differences between the two groups and will conclude with a synthesis of ideas as well as an explanation of how these differences were likely impacted through the Parsee and Iranian Zoroastrian divergence. The cultural and demographic changes between the two groups are a key indicator of the long-term impact of assimilation versus insularity in terms of religious adherence.

Whilst still having the religious freedom to practice, the Iranian Zoroastrians had many barriers stopping them from the open practice of religion. As mentioned in the subsection one on societal differences, there was an open culture of oppression against non-Muslims in Iran, limiting Iranian Zoroastrians' practice of religion to private spaces. As mentioned under the Theological section of this paper, the Yasna ceremony is a staple of Zoroastrian Culture and a reminder of Zoroastrian principles as it is performed every day. Iranian Zoroastrians migrated to performing the ceremony inside households, allowing for differences to be made within the ceremony in each household. At the same time the perseverance demonstrated by the Iranian Zoroastrians by continuing to practice their religion behind closed doors can be looked at as evidence for why they have had such strong cultural and religious preservation over the years despite oppression.

Concurrently in India at the time, Religious practice in public was the societal norm. In Gujarat during the 7th-10th century, Chaulukya rulers openly advocated for and continuously tolerated religious freedom. The yasna was performed in newly built firetemples in open spaces for the community to congregate and practice religion daily together the most popular location for this at the time was the Sanjan Atash beram. This was previously unheard of in Persia during the unilateral residence of all Zoroastrians, as large congregations were simply not feasible since most atash berams were made to fit a town or village and not more. It was the Hindu influence that created this idea of large religious gatherings, it was the residing Hindus in Gujarat that frequently had large religious ceremonies out in the open which influenced not only the way that the Parsees practiced religion in early years but still to this day. The factor of economic stability from trade also helped the Parsees build larger temples and place them in a far more saturated fashion than could be accomplished in Yazd and Kerman. These were the first few cultural adaptations that ended up shaping the Parsee identity that while not Indian and not Persian Zoroastrian fused the two.

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These larger more open daily rituals also created a new standard for festivals and celebrations in the culture. The largest celebration at the time and presently is Nowruz (Persian New Year), the most important festival of all in the Persian Calendar, happening at least once a year and sometimes twice it brought together whole communities to celebrate this occasion. Due to the fact that it brought together such large communities meant that it could and did set the standard for culture in communities, which makes it a valuable piece of evidence to analyze for disparities between the Iranian Zoroastrians and the Parsees. The first disparity here is the frequency of celebration. The Iranian Zoroastrians Nowruz celebration overlaps with the Parsees jamshedi Navroz celebration both happening at the spring equinox based on the Falsi calendar. the Parsees also celebrate a second Navroz called Shahanshahi Navroz during August. The Shahanshahi calendar is the Zoroastrian calendar whilst the Falsi calendar is the Persian calendar. The shahashahi calendar was less commonly used in Persia and Parsees adopted it in the process of migration from Persia to India. It is clear here that the Iranian Zoroastrians hold close ties to their persian history and are more reluctant to adapt and change culture as the Parsees have by adopting a secondary calendar. The second difference is the way in which Nowruz/Navroz is practiced, whilst in Iran the zoroastrians see it as a chance to reconnect with god and spend their day in prayer in small groups at local atash berams. The zoroastrians in India have perceived the celebration differently, there is a lesser focus on prayer and a stronger focus on welcoming and celebrating the new year through singing, dancing eating big dinners together in large groups. This is a longer term impact of the Hindu influence on tradition with large ceremonies that associate with religion.

From a demographical perspective the Iranian Zoroastrians have had comparatively smaller but more stable numbers than the Parsees in india. According to the 2013 Iranian Census there are 25,000 Zoroastrians residign within Iran. Concurrently the Federation of Zoroastrian Associations of North America (F.E.Z.A.N.A) provided estimates that the amount of Zoroastrians in Iran is closer to 40,000. Depicting an underreporting of roughly 38%. Both F.E.Z.A.N.A and the Iranian goverment have no incentive to disproportionately represent the population of Zoroastrians within Iran, infact it may be in the interest of the iranian government to overreport it, in view of the fact on the global stage Iran claims diversity it would make sense to exaggerate the statistics. Since both conducting bodies in the cencus seem to be objective it leaves us to believe that it is the stakeholder being questioned that is not objective. Intuitively this makes a lot of sense, iranian zoroastrians dont want to pay higher taxes and get flagged in the government as a non-muslim person. Therefore for a large proportion of Iranian Zoroastrians they probably chooose not to distinguish themselves from greater Iranian society. When being asked by F.E.Z.A.N.A. on the other hand there is no fear of government retaliation hence why many Iranian Zoroastrians own up to their faith. Whilst this further supports the idea of culutral and societal oppression in Iran it also highlights a semi-positive aspect, Whilst numbers are underreported they are staying stable through the years. This means that societal perception are not changing constantltly around religious minorites, whether that be for the better or worse. Due to the fact no people who previously didn't express thier faith chose too and no people who previously accepted it chose to repent it. The conclusion that oppressive behaviour is not ramping up can be arrived at.

Analogoulsy in India numbers are larger overall but are declining through the years. The 2001 indian census reported 76,000 Zoroastrians whilst the 2011 census only reported 57,000 a decline of 17% over just ten years. There is unlikely to be any underreporting here because of the religious freedoms of the Parsees explored in subsection 1 as well as the economic benefits of being Parsee in subsection 2. This population decline instead stems from the issue of endogamy. The cultural assimilation of the parsees in india in the modern era, has led to inter-faith marriages becoming increasingly popular. Considering the fact that the governing body of Parsees in india the Bombay Parsee Panchayat has rules regarding whether a child of inter-faith marriage can be a Parsee restricts children from joining at an early age. Only if the childs father is a Zoroastrian can a child be accepted into the community. Whilst the openness of Indian society has provided the parsees with mobility it has at the same time opened them up to cultural assimilation possibly transforming to cultural erosion.

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In summary whilst the isolation of Iran restricted the Iranian Zoroastrians from becoming economically prosperous and socially integrated it allowed them to preserve their Zoroastrian culture to a further degree than the Parsees of India were able to. In terms of population it seems that in both Iran and India the population has not seen any growth with decline prevalent in India. It is crucial to remember the validity of sources when conducting this research, hence it is possible that Zoroastrians in Iran have chosen not to self-report their religion meaning there is a possibility of growth in the population in Iran. The question then remains even if the population in Iran is growing does this linger any promise for the religion's longevity in the future as if your people don't have freedom to openly practice and preach their religion it can be speculative whether or not they are even practising the religion.

PAPER CONCLUSION

To conclude let's first synthesize the findings of this paper. It was first established in section one of the paper the theology of the Zoroastrian religion which linked back to the susceptibility to division being discovered as a result of an overly strong linkage between the geographical location of the followers and the religion itself. The second section of this paper operates on the back of the findings of the first section which proves that the susceptibility of the religion to divide. The second section explores the raw data and information regarding the lives of citizens in both countries to extrapolate the implicit and explicit divides between the two religions from a societal, economic and cultural lens. A combination of these sections provides the understanding that post the Arab conquest of 651 CE there are prevalent economic, societal and cultural divides between the religions residing populous in India and in Iran.

The broader implication of this study impacts the religious understanding of post-conquestal religions. This research can help religions navigate the possible challenges that present themselves when migrating portions of their population to a new location. This research also has current implications to the Zoroastrian community providing an overview of challenges faced in the community a baseline level of understanding needed to make change in the long term to improve longevity of the religion and possibly ensure demographical stability.

As with all research this paper does face a certain level of limitation. The possible biases of sources such as the Qissa i sanjan, which is consistently referred to during the paper, makes it arduous to have an objective overview of historical settings and situations the Parsees were in. The possible fear to identify as Zoroastrian in Iran is another limitation of the sources referred to for demographical analysis. Whilst these are the best possible sources available for analysis at the moment of publication they cannot be considered fully objective or truthful. Consequently this paper should not be looked at as an absolute fact, and instead simply the best possible overview of the Zoroastrian divergence between two communities.

CONFLICTS OF INTEREST:

The author has declared a conflict of interest in their research, the author has declared that they themselves are a member of the Parsee community mentioned in this paper which could sub-consciously have led to bias in the paper.

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